

(d) Other schemes in the Education Department include the provision of physical education, organisation of a Medical Inspection Unit, provision of midday meals to a limited number of children, strengthening of inspecting staff, establishment of schools for defectives, and deputation of Departmental Officers abroad for higher training, and the establishment of 150 pre-primary schools on a grant-in-aid basis.

(e) In Mysore University, it is proposed to organise a first-grade women's college; to raise the Intermediate College in Mysore to the degree standard; to start two intermediate colleges at Kolar and Davangere; to establish a Teachers' College, an Agricultural College, and a College of Commerce, and to start some new courses in the Engineering College.

It will be seen from the above analysis that the Provincial and State plans generally follow the Sargent Report, though the emphasis on individual schemes and the time-factor varies from Province to Province in the light of local conditions and the financial resources available.

23. The End of the British Rule (15th August 1947). The foregoing review of the educational developments between 1937 and 1947 will show that its most outstanding feature was the preparation of plans for a comprehensive educational reconstruction in India. Hitherto, educational policies had been a matter of drift, more or less dependent on the chance interest which the heads of administration had shown in it. A Viceroy like Ripon or Curzon would create interest in education throughout India and generate a wave of reform; an enthusiastic D.P.I. like H. S. Reid, Arnold, or Sir Alexander Grant would vitalize the whole educational system of the Province under his charge. But such men of vision and capacity were only few and far between and, on the whole, the educational policies in India between 1813 and 1937 were characteristic of the British genius for "muddling through to success". The idea of a plan, of a *prescribed goal* to be reached within a *specified time* by the adoption of *well-co-ordinated programmes* was new to the educational system of India and when it was officially accepted during this period, the innovation was welcomed in all quarters. But the preparation of an agreed plan was not an easy matter and it kept Government busy almost till the end of the period under review; and hardly had the first steps been taken for the implementation of the first Five-Year-Plans by the Central and Provincial Governments, when the British Power was withdrawn from India on 15th August 1947 and the British Period in the history of Indian education came to an end.

On this great occasion, one cannot but recall the words of Lord Curzon who was undoubtedly the most typical of the bureaucrats that ruled over India during the last hundred and fifty years. On 20th September 1905, he was addressing a conference of the Directors of Public Instruction at Simla and after reviewing his work for educational reform in India at some length, he concluded his speech with the following magnificent peroration :—

Upon these and many other subjects I might discourse to you at length. But you are better acquainted with them than I am, and I have addressed myself to-day not so much to details as to the principles that have underlain the great movement of educational activity upon which we have together been engaged. To you and to your successors I must now commit the task. It is a work which may well engage your best faculties, and be the proud ambition of a lifetime. On the stage where you are employed there is infinite scope for administrative energy, and, what is better, for personal influence ; while in the background of all your labours stands the eternal mystery of the East, with its calm and immutable traditions, but its eager and passionate eyes. What the future of Indian Education may be neither you nor I can tell. It is the future of the Indian race, in itself the most hazardous though absorbing of speculations. As I dream of what Education in India is to be or become, I recall the poet's lines :—

Where lies the land to which the ship would go ?
Far far ahead is all her seamen know.
And where the land she travels from ? Away
Far far behind is all that they can say.

In the little space of navigable water for which we are responsible between the mysterious past and the still more mysterious future, our duty has been to revise a chart that was obsolete and dangerous, to lay a new course for the vessel, and to set her helm upon the right tack.¹

One may not agree with Curzon's use of the phrase " the right tack " and would prefer to substitute the words " the right " by the phrase " a new and more fruitful ". With this change, however, which in no way diminishes the value of British contribution but merely places it in a proper perspective, what Curzon said of his own work might well be applied to all that the British Rule did for the education of the Indian people.

¹ *Lord Curzon in India*, Vol. II, p. 79.

EDUCATION IN INDIA DURING THE BRITISH PERIOD

A RETROSPECT

We have now reached the end of a long journey. Taking our stand on 15th August 1947, therefore, we can afford to pause and cast our glance backwards in *retrospect* over the achievements and failures of the last two hundred years. Such a retrospect of the history can now be carried out more *critically* and *dispassionately* than in the past. So long as the British held the political power in India, almost all educational controversies had a political bias. The Englishmen over-rated certain aspects of their contribution to justify the British Rule in India and attributed the shortcomings of their achievements to causes beyond their control. Their usual reply to hostile criticism was that it emphasized "what was omitted and what is still to do" and ignored "what has been accomplished, what has been well done, with what means, in face of what difficulties, with what purpose, and with what measure, what promise, of success".¹ On the other hand, Indians pointed out the failures of British educational policy in India, compared the pace of educational advance in India with that in England herself, or in independent Eastern countries (like Japan or Turkey), or even with that in the dependencies of other nations (like the Philippines) and argued that modern education in India had failed to solve national problems and that its few blessings, such as they were, could hardly be held to compensate for the evils of political slavery or economic exploitation.

The two sides of the controversy are best summed up in the following passage from the pen of M. R. Paranjpe :

Indian Educational Policy of today was planned and organised by a foreign agency and has been submitted to the severest criticism. It is described as a foreign plant, not suited to the Indian soil and therefore showing an unseemly growth. It is described as an attempt to make India lose her national characteristics and make the people, Indian by birth but English in taste, manners and outlook. It is believed to have been an attempt to make India a Christian nation. The commonest indictment has been that the chief objective of the Indian Educational Policy, as conceived in 1835, pursued in 1854, and emphasized in 1882, has been to obtain English-knowing recruits for the subordinate services of British India. By enforcing a foreign medium of instruction, it is

¹ O'Malley : *Modern India and the West*, p. 179.

believed to have arrested the development of Indian languages and Indian intellect. Not unoften, again, the Indian education of the last hundred years is charged with making India less religious and therefore less moral; or again, less willing to accept the dictums of elders and therefore less disciplined, and less loyal to authorities.

It is again a universal complaint, somewhat conflicting with the above indictment, that the growth of Indian education has not been as rapid and as varied as it should have been to make India efficiently shoulder the responsibilities of a self-governing nation. The literacy percentage is still disgracefully small, and even in this small percentage of literates there appears an alarming disparity between literate men and literate women; adult education is totally neglected, and the ideals of education are more suited to the upper strata of the society, cultural rather than utilitarian, literary rather than scientific, creating more lawyers than industrialists, and service-seekers rather than skilled artisans. There has been a woeful neglect of physical education and consequent disappearance of love for adventure and daring, virtues essential for the defence of one's land.

As against this charge sheet are presented the many benefits brought to India by the new education of the last century. The acquaintance with English has made possible inter-provincial and inter-national exchanges of views, opened out a treasure of knowledge concealed from Indians in the past, and revolutionised their social and political outlooks. India, it is claimed, has, in the last hundred years, ceased to be a field of exploitation for foreign adventurers, and has been steadily, if slowly, marching to a place among the leading nations of the world, which she once was politically, economically and educationally. For the first time in the last two thousand years is successfully challenged the caste-system of India and the consequent parochial outlook inherent in the people. Learning is no longer a privilege of the few and the Brahman and the Chandal forget the distinction in their status at birth and work as colleagues for common ends. Once again her poets, her scientists, her artists, her social and political workers have ceased to be local luminaries and have acquired international fame. Her rise from the status of a conquered country to that of a self-governing nation is ascribed, in a great measure, to the influence of the new educational policy adopted by Lord William Bentinck in 1835 and perseveringly enforced by later Governor-Generals.¹

The *political bias* in these claims and counter-claims is self-evident and now that the prime cause of this bias has ceased to exist, the possibility of an impartial and more critical evaluation of educational history becomes obvious. Today, the Englishman is as ready to admit his mistakes as the Indian is to admit the valuable contributions of England to Indian life and thought; and with this change in the roles, we are brought nearer the truth than at any time in the past.

2. Failure to Evolve a National System of Education.
The principal charge against British educational administration in India is that it failed to create a national system of education

¹ M. R. Paranjpe: *A Source Book of Modern Indian Education*, pp. v-vi.

for the country. This is hardly disputed. British responsibility for Indian education largely ceased with its transfer to Indian control in 1921 ; and at that time, the official system had not even recognised the concept of national education. But even assuming, for the sake of argument, that the Britishers always continued to be indirectly responsible for the education of the people, the utmost that they could be credited with having done was to *visualise* a national system of education for the country and present it to the people in the form of the Post-war Plan of Educational Development (1944). This Plan, however, is far from satisfactory ; and even if it were not so, the charge still remains that hardly any action was taken on it till 15th August 1947.

In the years between 1904 when Curzon created the first great storm over educational issues and 1937 when Indians obtained almost complete control of education, it was the *fact* of this failure that formed a subject of controversy. Official historians went to one extreme and put forward tall claims in support of British educational policy. Nationalists went to the other extreme and declared that British Rule had ruined India culturally and spiritually. But these extremes are now things of the past ; the *fact* of the failure is now readily admitted ; and consequently, the attention of educationists is directed to ascertaining the *reasons* for this failure so that the mistakes of the past may be avoided in the future.

Our survey of educational history during the last century and a half reveals that the British failure to create a national system of education in India was mainly due to the following reasons :—

(a) *Failure to Realise the Place of India in the Comity of Nations* : A national system of education is a means to an end and can only be organised as a corollary to the role which one desires the nation itself to play. The imperialistic nature of the British power prevented it from visualising a self-respecting and independent India. The missionaries looked upon her as a recruiting ground for Christianity ; the Company generally regarded her as a field for commerce and profits ; the Despatch of 1854 referred to her as the producer of raw materials or the buyer of the finished products of British industries ; Curzon considered her as an eternal field for the civilizing influence

of the British administrator ; and until the end of the second World War, all declarations of official policy were characterised by the same blind refusal to visualise India as a sovereign, independent nation with her own unique and valuable contribution to make to universal culture. There is obviously no room for a national system of education within the four corners of such an imperialist political philosophy.

(b) *Failure to Evolve a Synthesis of East and West* : Another reason for the failure of British educational administration was its inability to bring about a proper synthesis between the East and the West. The missionaries could not do so because of their emphasis on proselytisation, their tendency to regard Christianity and Western culture as inseparable allies, and their inability to look reverently on ancient Indian traditions and culture. The British officials could have done this ; but very few of them saw the desirability of the step and fewer still could feel their way to achieve it. Some were great admirers of Eastern culture, no doubt ; but more often than not, they lost their sense of proportion and glorified the past in the same way as Indian chauvinists did. However, it was not these Orientalists who set the tune. Educational policies were mostly framed by that large majority of British officials who believed, with Kipling, that " East is East and West is West ; and never the twain shall meet ". Victorian smugness with its patronizing attitude was particularly bad in this respect. It regarded Indians as " lesser breeds without the law ", sneered at " Babu English," tried to classify educated persons as " loyal " and " disloyal," put a ban on the admission of Indians to European clubs and generally created such an atmosphere of reserve and aloofness that a synthesis of cultures became difficult, if not impossible. Racial hostilities that arose out of these attitudes became worse in an atmosphere of political conflict, with the result that most nationalist Indians evolved a defiant and challenging, instead of a receptive, attitude to Western culture. On the whole, therefore, it may be said that no planned and large-scale official attempt to bring about a synthesis of the East and the West was made during the period under review. A few individuals showed a fine blending of the two cultures in their lives and radiated a peculiar sweetness and light around them. A few institutions tried to work it out through their educational programmes ; and these experiments—

which were always non-official—helped to keep the concept alive. But they could not be regarded as a compensation for the non-recognition of the ideal by the official system of education.

(c) *Inadequate Aims*: The third reason for the failure of British educational administration is the inadequacy of aims formulated for it from time to time. Warren Hastings and Duncan mostly desired the political conciliation of those classes of society whom the British conquest had deprived of political power and influence; the Charter Act of 1813 talked of the revival and improvement of Oriental literatures and the encouragement of "learned natives"; the Despatch of 1854 spoke of the "diffusion of the improved arts, science, philosophy and literature of Europe"; the Commission of 1882 did not discuss the issue at all; Curzon talked of remedying "the inherent defects of the Indian intellect"; and the Resolution of 1913 declared the "formation of character" to be the main objective of educational policy. From the earliest days, the utilitarian objective of training Indians for employment in Government departments was always in the picture, though the emphasis placed upon it varied from time to time. The altruistic note of training Indians for self-government was also chanted now and then. Macaulay and Metcalfe were amongst the earliest of those who spoke of it with pride and conviction; Grant was not sure of it though he would not have regretted it; but the average official was afraid of the probable demand for *swaraj* that India might put forward and tried to postpone the evil day as far as he could by all means in his power. Consequently, training for self-Government was more a by-product than a deliberate objective of British educational policy. It is of course evident that each one of these objectives has a legitimate place of its own. But neither singly, nor taken together, do they give a coherent and comprehensive definition of the aims worthy of a national system of education for India. It is now universally admitted that unless an educational system is based upon a clear realisation of the "abundant life" that it should seek to provide, all discussion of legislation, codes, memoranda, curricula and examinations merely leads one into wilderness. But the discussion of aims in the context of life as a whole is the one thing that modern education in India has always lacked although innumerable officials, committees, Commissions and Reports have discussed

many other problems at tiresome length. The first attempt in this direction is the excellent Chapter on the "Aims of University Education" which occurs in the Report of the Indian Universities Commission (1949). But that was a creation of "free" India and came *after* the end of the British Rule.

(d) *Adoption of Wrong Methods*: If the non-formulation of adequate aims was one weakness of British educational administration, its harmful effect was further enhanced by the adoption of certain wrong methods. Foremost of these was the neglect of the indigenous system of education which resulted in its almost complete extinction by about 1900. Extreme dependence on English models, and the attempt to impose upon India a cheap imitation of all types of schemes and ideas that were evolved in England was another wrong step. England is urban, industrialised and rich; India is rural, agricultural, and poor. This contrast in the socio-economic background makes England a poor model for India. But the British administrators took it for granted that the English model, after a good deal of dilution, was all that India need ever have. This assumption made them neglect the indigenous traditions as well as the patterns of those progressive countries of the world which are closer to India in their socio-economic structure. In fact, one cannot help feeling that Indian education has all along been like a Cinderella tied to the apron-strings of the Educational System of England—and that precisely, has been the tragedy of our educational system. The adoption of the Downward Filtration Theory was also a wrong method because it gave a temporary setback in so far as mass education is concerned. The universal use of English as a medium of instruction, the emphasis on its teaching at the secondary and collegiate stage, the belief that English would become, and continue to be, the national language for the country as a whole, and the consequent neglect of modern Indian languages were another group of decisions that history has shown to be unwise. Instances of this type could be easily multiplied. They all show a failure correctly to visualise the situation and to look at things from the Indian point of view. Rawlinson is quite right when he concludes that the failure of the British Rule in India, in so far as it was a failure, was due to a sheer want of imagination.¹

¹ H. G. Rawlinson: *The British Achievement in India*, p. 241.

(e) *Failure to Develop India Socially, Economically and Politically*: Education cannot be planned in a vacuum and educational progress is always broadly proportional to the social, political and economic advancement of a nation. Certain aspects of British Rule were inimical to such advancement. For instance, the doctrine of religious neutrality was interpreted to mean non-interference in all matters of social reforms as well. Consequently, evils like untouchability, or child-marriages could not be fought with the help of State-aid and penal legislation. In these matters, therefore, some of the Indian States showed better progress than British India itself. It would, however, be difficult to blame the British official for his neutral attitude. He could probably have done nothing better, especially as it was politically expedient for him not to raise a hornet's nest. But it must also be admitted that a doctrine of non-interference in social matters is not really a colourless decision. It strengthens materially the forces of orthodoxy and to that extent, hinders the progress of true education. Similarly, the political dependence of India created difficulties in educational progress. In order to create a strong feeling of national solidarity, the first objective of national education in India ought to have been to bring all the different religions, communities and castes in a common democratic system of public schools. But politically, the growth of such a solidarity was not desirable. Hence no planned and vigorous attempts were made to create communal and religious harmony; nay, sometimes, the game of "divide and rule" was played in too obvious a manner; and the education of the two great communities—Hindus and Muslims—was allowed to grow (or was even planned) in isolation from each other. Thirdly, the economic aspects of British Rule were far from happy and it is now generally admitted that the poverty of the people increased very greatly in the last 150 years. Against such a worsening economic background no educational progress is ever possible. In other words, the British Rule could not, did not, or would not develop the social, political and economic side of Indian life. As national education is at once the cause and the effect of the regeneration of the social, political and economic life of a people, the British administration could not evolve a truly national system of education for India.

(f) *Failure to Secure the Necessary Personnel*: One of the most potent causes of the failure of British educational administration was its inability to mobilize the necessary personnel to plan and organise a national system of education in India. Admittedly the task was stupendous and difficult and even a partial accomplishment of the task would have required the life-long services of a large number of good educationists from England. But the first-rate educationists that England sent to India were too few. The missionaries, it is true, sent out some great men like Duff or Wilson. But their contribution was limited by the fact that missionary enterprise itself could play only a useful but subsidiary role in Indian education. The official fields were not all barren. Arnold from the Punjab or Sir Alexander Grant from Bombay and a few others hold a very honoured place in the official ranks. Amongst those who were not connected with the Education Department but who did good service to Indian education, the greatest name is that of Sir Michael Sadler. But such great men are a microscopic minority as compared with the endless stream of European officers of Education Departments that came to India between 1854 and 1924. Sir Alexander Grant was fundamentally right when he said that the conditions of service in the Education Department were not such as to attract good officers. Even the creation of the I. E. S. in 1896 did not improve matters. When one considers the great military talent that England sent out to India, the galaxy of great names that illumines the history of the I.C.S. or the Judiciary, even the great engineers, doctors and surveyors that worked in and for India, one is struck by the small stature of the average European official of the Indian Education Departments. After all, no system of administration can be greater in stature than the personnel which composes it; and looking to the average English official of the Education Department that came to India, one is not surprised at Gokhale's remark that the Indian Education Departments typified the "narrow, bigoted and inexpansive rule of experts."

One thing has to be said in favour of the officials of the Education Departments. Did they receive a fair deal from their comrades in other Departments? The answer is an emphatic No. Education was never in the forefront of British Indian Administration and was never accorded top-priority,

except probably when it led to politically inconvenient results. Even as late as 1921, Mayhew complained that the "experienced Secretary, after spending his morning energy on financial and judicial files" generally drafted his educational resolution "with the sinking sun" and reminded educationists that their task was "the formation of character and the training of good and productive citizens and that their methods must be good and effective within the limits prescribed by economy and public opinion."¹ These sarcastic remarks show how the Departmental officers had to struggle against the indifference of Government and the stony hearts of the finance departments. This is the burden of the song all through history. The drive for educational reconstruction required the support of the whole might of Government and of the officials of all departments. Even when *all* officials were Europeans, this support did not come forth, except on those rare occasions when a Viceroy like Ripon or Curzon took the wheel; and when education was transferred to Indian control, the co-operation from other important departments like Revenue (which continued to be reserved) became still less. Even such educational officers as India did possess would certainly have achieved better results, if only they had received greater attention from Government or more zealous co-operation from the Revenue and Finance Departments. But that was not to be.

(g) *Absence of a Plan* : Lastly, the failure of the British educational system must be ascribed to the absence of a plan or a consistent drive to reach a predetermined goal. The idea of a plan or a programme for administration is an essentially twentieth-century concept and one need not be surprised if the Indian educationists of the nineteenth century did not have one. But even till 1944, our educators did not evolve a plan because of the characteristic British attitude to life of "muddling through." When Curzon spoke of serving Indian education "in that strip of navigable water which lies between the mysterious past and still more mysterious future," he was speaking far more truly than he imagined. Most British officials lived and worked for the immediate present. They came to India for a short stay; and hence their whole object was to do something there and then—something which would yield quick results which *they*

¹ A Mayhew : *The Education of India*, p. 9.

themselves could see. This objective made them unmindful of the past and the future alike and innumerable instances can be quoted where each successive official rode his own hobby horse as hard as he could, and cared neither to develop the sound policies of his predecessor nor to plan something for his successor to continue. In developing national education one should have a long range plan. In India, the average life of an educational policy was 5 to 10 years—Policies came and went with successive Governors-General, Governors, or Directors of Public Instruction. This kaleidoscopic background made long range planning impossible and had disastrous consequences on the progress of Indian education.

3. Contributions of British Educational Administration :

The statement that the British educational administration failed to create a national system of education in India should not, however, be interpreted to mean that it achieved nothing worth while. In fact, it did several good things which India will always acknowledge. Some of these positive achievements of the British administration are the following :—

(a) The most important achievement of the British educational administration was to introduce India to English language and literature and through them, to all the thought, the scientific and industrial development, and the social and political philosophy of the West. This contact came at a very opportune time—when Indian culture and social organisation were at their lowest ebb. But it had a tremendous vivifying effect. It freed the Indian mind from the “ thralldom of old-world ideas ” and laid the foundation of a Renaissance in modern Indian life. This contact, its early excesses apart, has greatly enriched the mosaic of the Indian cultural pattern and has been a boon to India and the West alike.

(b) India owes the scientific and critical study of her ancient culture to European scholars whom British contact brought on the scene. There is a world of difference between the study of Sanskrit literature as it used to be carried on in an indigenous Pathshala and as it is conducted today in a university department of classical studies. The old method was of uncritical preservation ; the new method is one of scientific and critical analysis, selection, simplification, balancing and enrichment. The lead in this new method came from Western scholars of

Oriental languages. They might have frequently blundered ; but to them we must acknowledge our gratitude for the first discovery of a tool which we have since made our own and improved.

(c) While it is true to say that the British failed to develop the modern Indian languages by their insistence on the use of English as a medium of instruction, it is also paradoxically true that it was they who gave the first great impetus to their development in modern India. The officials and the missionaries studied the modern Indian languages, wrote their grammars, compiled dictionaries, and in many cases published the first books and papers in them. The languages of the aborigines also were first studied by European workers and no words can convey adequately our debt of gratitude to Sir George Grierson for his *Linguistic Survey of India*. It is true that we soon took up the cue and had later on to fight with the British officials themselves who said " Thus far ; and no further ". But the fact remains that the first incentives to the study of modern Indian languages came from European scholars whom the British contact introduced into India.

(d) The same may be said about Indian Art. In the rediscovery of Indian painting, architecture or sculpture, the pioneer work was almost always done by European scholars who found our ancient treasures, not only for themselves, but for us as well ; and we can never thank Curzon enough for the pioneer move to preserve our ancient monuments.

(e) Contact with the West is also responsible for the awakening of several humanistic trends in modern Indian life. The sympathy for the underdog, the crusade against untouchability, the emancipation of the modern Indian woman (in so far as it has been accomplished), the spirit of social service that is now manifesting itself in almost every walk of life and most conspicuously in education—all these movements owe a deep debt of gratitude to Western influences that came in the wake of the British administration. The claim of British historians that these humanistic trends arose *exclusively* from Western contacts is too tall to be admitted, because they were considerably strengthened by the revived study of ancient culture and the rising tide of patriotism. But their debt to Western contacts was certainly large and will be readily admitted.

(f) Finally, we owe to the British our acquaintance with (i) the modern democratic institutions of Europe, (ii) the Western systems of law and medicine which have rightly come to stay, and with (iii) the auxiliary tools of popular education such as the press, the cinema, the radio, the library, and the museum.

There is hardly any need to try to list every achievement of British Rule which had an educational significance. What has been said above is enough to indicate the rich and varied nature of its contribution to Indian educational life. Speaking of the British Rule in India at the Mansion House in 1904, Lord Curzon is reported to have said "To me the message is carved in granite, it is hewn out of the rock of doom--that our work is righteous and that it shall endure." In the larger context in which Curzon made the statement, the claim is highly exaggerated. A good deal of what the British Rule did will have to be undone and is better forgotten on both sides. But in the restricted sense of the solid contributions such as those stated above, Curzon's remark is fully justified. These cultural contributions of the British people will remain with us for all time and will be ultimately absorbed in the dynamic and complex pattern that Indian culture has always been.

APPENDIX

EDUCATION IN INDIAN STATES

During the British Period, there were about 700 States in India. Most of these, however, were so small that a detailed history of their educational developments is neither possible nor necessary. We, therefore, propose to notice here the educational history of the following 8 States only, which had a population of 20 lakhs or more (1941 census) :—¹

Serial No.	State.	Population.	Area in sq. miles.
1	Hyderabad	1,63,38,534	82,313
2	Mysore	73,29,140	29,458
3	Travancore	60,70,018	7,662
4	Kashmir	40,21,616	82,258
5	Gwalior	40,06,159	26,367
6	Jaipur	30,40,876	15,610
7	Baroda	28,55,010	8,176
8	Jodhpur	25,55,904	36,120

A few brief notes on the history of education in these States are given in the paragraphs that follow.

2. EDUCATION IN HYDERABAD. Although it is the biggest Indian State in population and revenue, Hyderabad has remained one of the most educationally backward States in India. Its only distinctive contribution is the establishment of the Osmania University which was the first University to adopt a modern Indian language (Urdu) as a medium of instruction.

(a) *Education in Hyderabad prior to 1883:* The beginnings of modern education in Hyderabad State go back to the year 1853-54 when Sir Salar Jung founded the *Darul Uloom* or Oriental College in Hyderabad City. It was designed to be "the centre of Oriental Learning in the Deccan and the means of diffusing a taste for culture through our own

¹ Out of the 562 States that acceded to the Indian Union, 218 States with a population of 171 lakhs have been merged with the Provinces, 24 States with a population of 23 lakhs are taken over as centrally administered areas, 304 States with a population of 376 lakhs have been integrated into six Unions. The only States that continue to exist as in the past are Hyderabad, Mysore and Kashmir. The eight States studied here have a population of more than 462 lakhs out of a total population of 820 lakhs for the 562 States.

classics".¹ The subjects taught were Arabic, Persian, Marathi, Telugu and English. No fees were charged and several scholarships and prizes were instituted to attract students.

Between 1853-54 and 1871-72, education made very slow progress. Five branch schools under *Darul Uloom* were organised; two schools—one Persian and the other in the regional language—were started in each Taluka (1869-70); and the first Government English High School was founded in Hyderabad City in 1870-71. In 1871-72, the total number of schools was 139 with 5,065 pupils and the total expenditure on education was only Rs. 1,43,000.

Until 1868-69, education was controlled by the Revenue Board. In that year, a Secretary for Education was appointed. In 1869-70, the post of the Director of Public Instruction was first created and Mr. W. H. Wilkinson was appointed to it. But the organisation of the Department may be said to have started only in 1871-72 when Moulvi Inayat-Ur-Rahman Khan was appointed D.P.I.

Between 1871-72 and 1881-82, several reforms were carried out. Curricula and Education Codes were drawn up and written examinations were introduced (1873-74); a Normal school for teachers was started; two Anglo-Vernacular Middle Schools were organised in the Districts; Deputy Inspectors of Schools were appointed; the *Madrassah-e-Aliya* or a public school for the sons of Muslim and Hindu gentlemen was started in 1878; four non-Government High schools were recognised and aided; and a beginning was made in the education of women—the girls' schools of the Wesleyan Mission being the earliest. In 1882-83, there were in all 186 schools with 11,599 scholars (of which 11 were girls' schools with an enrolment of 519) and the total expenditure on education was Rs. 1,53,000.

(b) *Education in Hyderabad (1884-1911)*: In 1884, the late His Highness Nawab Mir Mahboob Ali Khan Bahadur was invested with full administrative powers. His rule, which lasted till 1911, is the next period in educational history. Its chief events were the following:—

(i) A Local Fund Cess was levied in the State on the lines of British India.

(ii) The Nizam College was established in 1887-88.

(iii) The *Darul Uloom* was affiliated to the Punjab University in 1892-93; but was again disaffiliated and the State started its own examinations in 1906-07.

(iv) In 1890-91, the Asafia State Library was established with the principal object of obtaining and preserving manuscripts of rare Arabic and Persian works of literary or scientific value. In 1892-93, the *Dairatul Moarif* was established and a grant-in-aid was sanctioned to it for printing old and rare manuscripts of historical or religious value.

(v) A system of State scholarships called General, Special, English and Nizamia was introduced.

¹ *Education under Asaf Jah VII*, p. 1.

The *General and Special scholarships* were given to students studying for a higher standard in general education and for special and technical instruction in the Dominions, including training in the Normal School. *English scholarships*, as the term implies, were those that were given to students sent to England for higher studies. The *Nizamia scholarships*, which were instituted in 1298 F. (1888-89), were awarded to Muslim students reading for the Degree examination outside the State. In 1303 F. (1895-96) the total amount spent on scholarships was Rs. 95,041, out of which Rs. 28,687 was expended on General and Special scholarships and Rs. 67,354 on English scholarships. The amount spent on English scholarships rose to Rs. 1,00,600 in 1308 F. (1898-99), but after that there was a gradual decline until in 1315 F. (1905-06) it came down to Rs. 19,189. The total amount spent on scholarships in that year was a little over Rs. 50,000.¹

(vi) Education of Girls was encouraged. The Mahboobia Girls' school was founded in 1907-08 and the Nampalli Zenana High School in 1908-09 (It had begun as a school in 1887-88).

(vii) The Government Normal School at Hyderabad was established in 1891-92.

(viii) Some expansion in primary education was effected and steps were taken to provide buildings and equipment.

(ix) In 1909-10, Mr. A. Mayhew was appointed as Educational Adviser for 2 years. He submitted his report in 1911-12.

He (Mr. Mayhew) made an exhaustive survey of the state of education in all its aspects and suggested numerous reforms. Amongst these, the most important were the rapid extension of Primary education, the exclusive use of the mother-tongue as the medium of instruction in the Primary stage, the opening of special schools for the Depressed Classes, the appointment of an Inspector of Schools for each district and of an Inspectress of Girls' Schools with two Assistants, the reorganisation of *Darul Uloom* and other Oriental institutions, the strengthening of the teaching staffs of the English High Schools, the appointment of men of European qualifications as heads of important High Schools, the remodelling of the Normal School at Headquarters and the opening of training institutions in the districts, revision of the curriculum for the Middle and Primary Schools and of the courses of the Industrial Schools, preparation of an Education Code and revision of the Grant-in-aid Code and of the rules regarding the Text-book Committee. It is interesting to observe that Mr. Mayhew indicated the possibility of the establishment of a separate university for Hyderabad.²

But little effective action was taken on his suggestions.

In 1900-11, the total number of educational institutions rose only to 1,036 with an enrolment of 66,484 pupils. The total expenditure on education was only about Rs. 14 lakhs.

(c) *Education in Hyderabad (1911-1947)*: The present Nizam ascended the *Masnad* in 1911. The principal events of his rule were the following :—

(i) Until 1917, higher education in Hyderabad was controlled by the Madras University. In that year, Sir Akbar Hydari, who was then the Education Secretary,

¹ *Education under Asaf Jah VII*, pp. 14-15.

² *Ibid.*, p. 27.

submitted a memorandum to His Exalted Highness in which after ably pointing out the inherent defects of a system of education through the medium of a foreign language, such as 'the undue and unwarranted strain on the students' memory the time wasted in mastering the intricacies of a foreign language at the sacrifice of the subject-matter taught, the stifling of originality and the inability of the graduates to impart knowledge to their fellow countrymen in their mother-tongue and the unbridgeable gulf thus created between the educated classes and the mass of the general public,' he recommended the establishment of a university to be known as the Osmania University with Urdu, the official and the most widely understood language in the State, as the medium of instruction.¹

This proposal was sanctioned and in 1918, the Nizam issued a *Firman* establishing the Osmania University.

The first step towards bringing the new university into existence was taken when a Bureau of Translations was created for translating or compiling the necessary books in Urdu. Until now, the Bureau has prepared about 500 books required by the students in Intermediate, B.A. and LL.B. classes.

The first Matriculation Examination of the University was held in 1917-18 and the Osmania University College was opened in 1919. New buildings were carefully planned and constructed on an extensive site and these facilities are such as are not easily found elsewhere.² A Medical College was started in 1927 and an Engineering college as also a Teachers' Training College were opened in 1929.

The constitution of the University is different from that of the other Universities because it has a Council (which is the highest University authority) in addition to the usual university bodies—Senate, Syndicate, and Faculties. Moreover, the State used to administer the University more as a Government Department than as a statutory and autonomous body and the "administrative officers of the university have been chosen and transferred according to the exigencies of the State administration as a whole".³

(ii) Between 1911 and 1935, the total expenditure on education increased from about Rs. 14 lakhs to over a crore. The expansion in schools and scholars can be seen from the following table :—

Types of Institutions.	1910-11.		1934-35.	
	No. of Institutions.	No. of Pupils.	No. of Institutions.	No. of Pupils.
Colleges	2	126	10	1,600
Secondary Schools ..	88	16,326	184	69,843
Primary Schools ..	921	48,113	4,368	2,73,097
Special Schools ..	25	1,919	184	8,962
	1,036	66,484	4,746	3,53,582

¹ *Education under Asaf Jah*, vii, p. 37.

² Nizam's College, the Women's College and the Medical College remain on their own grounds outside.

³ *Report of the Indian Universities Commission*, p. 511.

(iii) Between 1935 and 1947, things improved slightly owing to the wave for post-war reconstruction plans that swept all over India. But even at the end of the period, Hyderabad was still very backward in education. The statistics for 1946-47 (excluding those for the Osmania University which have already been given on p. 757) are given below :—

	Institutions.	Pupils.
1. Secondary Schools	300	1,20,747
2. Primary Schools	6,314	3,99,899
3. Special Schools	412	17,515
Total ..	7,026	5,38,161

3. EDUCATION IN MYSORE. Unlike Hyderabad, Mysore shows very good progress in education and has several features which even British India could have copied with advantage.

(a) *Education in Mysore prior to 1882*: Modern administration may be said to have begun in Mysore in 1831 when the British Government assumed direct responsibility for the administration of the State; but until 1856, hardly anything was done to organise a state system of public education. Maharaja Krishnaraja Wodeyar III established an English School at Mysore at his own expense; the missionaries started a few pioneer schools here as elsewhere; but nothing else was done and the only means of popular education were the indigenous schools which, as in other parts of India, existed here in large numbers. The Despatch of 1854, however, had its echo even in Mysore and the Hon. Mr. Devereux, the then Judicial Commissioner at Mysore, prepared a fairly elaborate scheme of educational expansion in the State (1856).

He provided for an establishment of officers by which the scheme was to be worked: there were to be a Director of Public Instruction, two Inspectors, four Deputy Inspectors and twenty Sub-Deputy Inspectors, a Sub-Deputy Inspector having on an average four talukas and the higher officers in proportion. As to the schools to be established, he proposed that there should be, when the plan was completely worked, a Central College, four Anglo-Vernacular schools of a superior class, one for each division costing on an average about Rs. 250 a month, 80 taluk Vernacular schools, one for each taluk, to cost about Rs. 4,000, and two Normal Schools, each costing about Rs. 250, one for the *maidan* part of the State, and another, considering the difficulty of getting people of *maidan* to go as teachers to the *malnad*, for the *malnad* part. All this would cost about a lakh and thirteen thousand rupees, including a sum of about six thousand rupees set apart for grants-in-aid.¹

The principal defect in the scheme was that it was expected to take a number of years for completion. Progress was, therefore, slow and halting. Even in 1864-65, the State had only one High School at Bangalore, 4 A.V. Schools in the Districts, one training school, one Engineering class, and 48 Kannada Schools.

¹ *Souvenir—All-India Educational Conference, Mysore, 1948*, pp. 1-2.

In 1868, a new lead was given by Mr. B. L. Rice, the then Director of Public Instruction, who later on became well-known as the Secretary of the Indian Education Commission. The levy of the Local Fund Cess at this time on the model of British India increased the funds available for expansion and made the task of educational reform much easier. The scheme proposed by Mr. Rice

suggested the opening of *hobli* schools to bring education within reach of the mass of the people.¹ Under the provisions of that scheme a school was to be sanctioned to every hobli where the people desired to have a school, and in earnest of their desire agreed to provide a school-house. The masters were to be the men who had been in charge of the indigenous schools, but to be employed after they had received training in the Normal School. They were to receive under training Rs. 5 a month and afterwards an appointment of Rs. 7 a month. The cost was to be met from a cess levied on the Land Revenue and education in the schools was to be free. Committees were formed from among the local people to supervise the schools.²

Normal schools were to be started at the headquarters of every District to train the teachers for the Hobli schools. A fair progress was made during the next decade and in 1881, the educational statistics for the State were as follows :—

	Government.	Unaided.	Aided.	Total.
1. Number of Schools ..	899	1,000	188	2,087
2. Number of Scholars ..	33,287	15,000	9,370	57,657

	Schools.	Scholars.
1. <i>Public Institutions</i>		
College level	4	132
Secondary level	166	3,084
Primary level	907	38,296
Special	10	1,145

2. *Expenditure on Education*

from Government Funds	Rs. 1,58,423
from other sources	,, 2,32,605

Total .. Rs. 3,91,028

¹ *Hobli* is a group of villages. The idea of these schools is apparently inspired by the *Halkabandi* Schools of Thomason.

² *Souvenir—All-India Educational Conference, Mysore, pp. 2 3.*

(b) *Education in Mysore (1882-1902)* : In 1881, the administration of the State was transferred to the Ruling Family—an event which stirred popular enthusiasm and gave a great fillip to education. Just a little later, the Report of the Indian Education Commission was published and it exercised a great influence over educational policies in Mysore as in the rest of India. There was, therefore, considerable progress in education on the general lines recommended by the Commission which were, however, modified by the State authorities in certain respects. Sir K. Sheshadri Iyer, the then Dewan, stated the educational policy of the State in the following words (1886) :—

The subject is one which the Government regard as of the foremost importance. Their policy may be briefly summed up as aiming at the following ends : To maintain unimpaired and in thorough efficiency all the means of elementary and secondary education, and to bring them within the reach of all classes, both by direct agency and by assisting private effort. To promote a scholarly study of the local vernacular and of our ancient classical languages, to elevate and extend female education, and to conduct it on a system strictly national so as to enlist popular sympathy in its progress, to encourage higher education and to train young men for the professions of medicine, engineering, etc.¹

The principal events of the twenty years between 1882 and 1902 were the following :—

- (i) Appointment of School Committees for Village schools as a step towards the transfer of authority to local bodies ;
- (ii) Special encouragement to Kannada and Sanskrit studies and the establishment of a Kannada College ; Establishment of the *Oriental Library* at Mysore ;
- (iii) Award of scholarships to students going abroad for technical studies ;
- (iv) Establishment of Maharani's Girls' School at Mysore²; and general encouragement to the education of women ;
- (v) Establishment of Normal and Industrial schools ;
- (vi) Establishment of special schools for Harijans, and institution of scholarships for the encouragement of education in their midst ; and
- (vii) Encouragement to Muslim education by appointing special Muslim Inspectors and placing them in charge of urban schools.

(c) *Education in Mysore (1902-21)* : As in British India, a new era of educational reform started in Mysore in 1902 and continued to be in full swing up to 1921. The principal events of this period were :—

(i) Sir P. N. Krishnamurthi, the Dewan, emphasized technical education in 1902. An Engineering School and a number of industrial schools were accordingly established. In 1912, the Technical Education

¹ *Souvenir—All-India Educational Conference, Mysore*, p. 4.

² This has since developed into a College.

Committee presided over by Shri (now Sir) M. Visvesvarayya submitted its report which was accepted by Government and a further impetus was given to technical education.

(ii) In 1913, the Elementary Education Regulation was passed in the State with the object of introducing compulsory education. It was based, more or less, on Gokhale's bill and some inspiration also came from Baroda. By 1921, it was in operation in 240 centres with an enrolment of 44,009 children of compulsory age.

(iii) Aided primary schools were encouraged to secure expansion at a small cost.

The scheme of aided elementary schools put forward by M. Shama Rao, M.A., the then Inspector-General of Education in his letter dated the 5th February 1914, appeared to be well suited to evoke and organize local effort in the rural areas of the State. Government was, therefore, pleased to accord sanction to the proposal making the village responsible for maintaining the aided school and for payment of a suitable salary to the teacher, the grant paid by the Government being supplemented by the villager's contribution. Monthly grants of Rs. 5 to Rs. 7 were given towards the salary of the teacher. As the villagers were given the option of paying their quota either in kind or coin and as this system did not involve any heavy outlay on the part of the village, the system succeeded eminently for some time. The enthusiasm of the people was so great that the schools began to multiply in leaps and bounds and 'in the year 1918-19, the expansion reached its peak, 9,596 schools being instituted and 243,172 pupils being enrolled in the registers'.¹

(iv) In 1913, the S.S.L.C. scheme was introduced at the secondary stage. Although this reform was recommended by the Indian Education Commission as early as in 1883, Mysore adopted it 30 years later!

The purpose of the scheme was to reduce the dominating influence of the Matriculation Examination on the High School course and to provide more practical courses for those not going to Colleges. A record was to be kept of a pupil's work throughout the school course and it was to be supplemented by an estimate of his performance at a Public Examination conducted by bodies other than Universities as recommended by the Universities Commission of 1902. An S.S.L.C. Board was constituted by Government for this purpose.²

(v) In 1916, the University of Mysore was established. Its special features were the introduction of a three years' degree course (preceded by a year's study at a specially selected high school); provision for university lectures in English and Indian languages; compulsory study of the mother-tongue throughout the university course; and the introduction of the tutorial system.

(d) *Education in Mysore (1921-30)*: The decade between 1921 and 1930 witnessed a number of drastic changes and reforms—among which the following may be mentioned :—

(i) An educational survey of the State was carried out in 1922. It revealed that

¹ B. N. Ramasesha Rao : *Pre-University Education in Mysore*, p. 24.

² *Souvenir—All-India Educational Conference*, p. 7.

Of the 16,485 villages in the State, 12,026 did not have any schools at all. There were 1,678 villages with Government Primary Schools and 2,781 villages with aided Primary Schools. There were in all 5,276 Primary Schools, that is, one school for every five or six square miles and every 1,094 of the population. There were 953 villages with a population of over 500 which had no schools, Government or aided. About 2,700 schools did not have suitable buildings.¹

(ii) Ever since 1919, the problem of the expansion of Primary Education was engaging the attention of Government. Shri C. R. Reddi, the then Inspector-General of Education, made certain proposals on the subject which were embodied in a Memorandum published in 1919 and orders thereon were passed in 1921. These contemplated

1. the provision of 10,000 primary schools ;
2. the conversion of aided schools, at the rate of 250, each year for 5 years into Government Schools ;
3. the elimination of single-teacher schools ;
4. the establishment of common primary schools for boys and girls except where there was a general desire for separate schools ;
5. the remodelling of all primary schools so as to make a uniform primary course of 4 years teaching no English ;
6. the reorganization of Anglo-Vernacular Schools as Middle Schools of 4 years' length, teaching English as a compulsory language, but having the vernacular as the medium of instruction ;
7. the provision of Sanskrit and Hindustani Munshis, Drawing Masters and Physical Instructors for all Middle Schools ;
8. the establishment of Taluk Industrial Schools and District Industrial Schools ;
9. the transfer of Industrial Education to the control of the Department of Industries and Commerce ;
10. an increase in the number of Normal Schools from 10 to 20 ;
11. the appointment of a Director of Physical Education for the State ;
12. the introduction of a scheme of Medical Inspection ;
13. the introduction of commercial, technical and other vocational courses in the High Schools ; and
14. the improvement in the pay and prospects as well as in the qualifications of all ranks in the educational service.²

In addition to these proposals, the Memorandum also suggested the reorganisation of the curricula of Primary and Middle Schools, and made important recommendations regarding the equipment of Primary Schools, Adult Education and the Boy Scout Movement.

It was estimated that these proposals would demand a recurring expenditure of Rs. 21·50 lakhs in addition to the then existing expenditure of Rs. 37 lakhs. The resources at the disposal of the Government being limited, it was accordingly laid down that an education cess of one anna in the rupee in all Town Municipalities and District Boards and a cess of two annas in the rupee in all City

¹ *Souvenir—All-India Educational Conference, Mysore*, p. 0.

² *Ibid.*, p. 8.

Municipalities be levied on all items of revenue which may be subject to the imposition of this cess. It was also laid down that the control of Primary Education should be transferred to such Municipalities as undertake to meet one-third of the cost of Primary Education in their respective areas.¹

(iii) There was considerable expansion of State primary schools as the following statistics will show :—

	1921-22	1931-32
Government and Municipal schools	2,442	4,900
Aided and unaided	4,340	1,209
Total	6,782	6,109

(iv) The Middle Schools were reorganised with a four-year course in 1923-1924. In all of them, English was taught as a compulsory language, but the vernacular was the medium of instruction. Industrial education was transferred to the control of the Department of Industries and Commerce in 1922.

(v) Industrial Schools at some District Headquarters Stations were established.

(vi) A Superintendent to supervise the practical instruction in Middle Schools, and an Agricultural Inspector to perform a similar duty for agricultural instruction and two Inspectors of Physical Education were appointed in 1926-27.

(vii) A scheme of Medical Inspection was introduced in certain areas.

(viii) The designation of Inspector-General of Education was changed to the Director of Public Instruction in 1927-28 and the higher inspectorate was completely reorganised on a territorial instead of a functional basis.

(ix) A Committee to report on the S.S.L.C. Examination was appointed in 1922. It made several recommendations of which the following were important :—

It was recommended that "there be no specialization in the High School course and that during the three years of the High School course, all pupils should uniformly study the same general subject of the standard to be prescribed in each by the syllabuses". It was also suggested "that the study of a technical or industrial subject be also made obligatory on all the candidates in the High School course, but that this subject be not required to be brought up for the Public Examination, although attendance in respect of it should be compulsory and should count for term, similar to attendance in respect of the other subjects, and that a list of industrial and technical subjects be drawn up for boys and girls separately and pupils permitted to take up any one of them, according to their choice."

Another important recommendation of the Committee was "that under the present circumstances, English do continue to be the medium of instruction in the High School classes." This proposal was approved by the Government subject to the modification made by the Senate, that as far as possible the

¹ *Souvenir—All-India Educational Conference, Mysore, pp. 8-9.*

student's vernacular should be used in general throughout the High School course as supplementary medium of oral instruction, except for the teaching of English and Mathematics. The Government, however, did not agree with the further proposal of the Senate that at the S.S.L.C. examination, candidates should be permitted to answer either in Kannada or in English, at their option, except in the subjects of English and Mathematics for which English should be compulsory.¹

(x) The Mysore University was reorganised in the light of the recommendations of the Calcutta University Commission. Intermediate classes as suggested by the Commission were established; and a degree course of three years for *Honours* and two years for *Pass* was introduced.

(e) *Education in Mysore (1930-47)*: Between 1930 and 1947, several important changes were made among which the following may be mentioned.

(1) In 1930, the Elementary Education Regulation was passed and it came into force in July 1931.

In accordance with this Regulation, the administration of all Government Primary Schools, Village Aided Schools, Adult Night Schools, etc., numbering in all about 6,000 was transferred to twelve Local Education Authorities, one for each of the eight districts and one for each of the four large municipalities in the State. Each Local Education Authority exercised control over Primary Education through a School Board. Though a separate inspectorate was contemplated, owing to financial stringency it was not instituted. For the administration and inspection of elementary education, the District Educational Officers and Assistant Inspectors were appointed Ex-officio School Board Officers and School Board Assistants, respectively, in addition to their usual duties.²

But as the experiment did not succeed, Government resumed direct control over primary education in 1941. It will be seen that both these developments are in line with the contemporary educational thought in British India.

(2) The Mysore State Adult Education Council was established in 1941-2. It conducted, in 1947-8, more than 5,000 literacy classes and maintained more than 1,800 rural libraries.

(3) A Scheme of *Partial Compulsion* was introduced in 1944, and is now in operation in 3 talukas of each District. Under it, it is obligatory on parents who send their children to school to keep them there either until the completion of the course or the attainment of the age of 12.

(4) In 1946, the Education Department was reorganised. Previously, the Assistant Inspectors of Education, the District Educational Officers, and the Deputy Directors of Public Instruction were in direct charge of Primary, Middle and High Schools respectively. In May 1946, the administrative system was reorganised so as to bring in unity of educational control in the districts. The District Educational Officers were placed in administrative charge of all kinds of schools in the districts including the inspection of High Schools. The Assistant Inspectors of Education were re-named Inspectors of Schools and they continue to be in charge of Primary Schools. Three Deputy Directors were attached

¹ *Souvenir—All-India Educational Conference, Mysore*, p. 10.

² *Ibid.*, p. 11.

to the Office of the Director of Public Instruction and they are in charge of High School, Middle School and Elementary Education respectively.¹

(5) In 1947, full compulsion was introduced in one *hobli* in each district. The scheme, however, contemplated rapid extension of compulsion to all the areas of the State.

The following table shows the number and strength of the different kinds of educational institutions as it stood on 1st March 1947 :—

Institutions.	Number.	Strength.
1. Lower Primary Schools for Boys	8,105	386,648
2. Lower Primary Schools for Girls	453	42,540
3. New Type Middle Schools for Boys including Upper Primary Schools for Boys	366	45,797
4. New Type Middle Schools for Girls including Upper Primary Schools for Girls	60	7,517
5. Middle Schools for Boys	478	75,201
6. Middle Schools for Girls	92	14,553
7. High Schools for Boys	92	24,564
8. High Schools for Girls	20	3,001
9. Sanskrit Schools	87	2,431
10. Oriental Colleges	5	556
11. Commercial Schools	27	1,745
12. Industrial Schools	15	408
13. Agricultural Schools	4	97
14. Training Institutions	8	688
15. Special Schools for the handicapped	2	125
Total	9,814	605,871

It will be seen from the foregoing account that the history of education in Mysore was greatly influenced by contemporary educational thought in British India. The great progress of the State is due mainly to its enlightened rulers and to a succession of able Dewans among whom may be mentioned Sir K. Sheshadri Iyer, Sir M. Visvesvarayya, and Sir Mirza Ismail.

¹ *Souvenir—All-India Educational Conference, Mysore*, pp. 12-13.

4. EDUCATION IN TRAVANCORE. Travancore occupies a unique place in the history of education in India because its educational progress is far in advance, not only of the other States, but of the Provinces of British India as well. This is primarily due to social and political causes. As Shri A. Sankara Pillai writes :—

Continuity of Indian Rule : The social and political conditions that are peculiar to the State have left their mark on education also. The most distinctive feature about Travancore is that at no time from the beginning of recorded history was she under alien rule. Even the British have no rights of conquest over Travancore and she is one of the few Indian States whose relationship with the paramount power began on terms of strict equality. As a result, there was not any violent break in the continuity of her history . . .¹

The Status of Women : A further distinctive feature about Travancore is the high status enjoyed by women in society. Women are not under any special disabilities owing to their sex and they enjoy perfect equality with men in all matters. Therefore women's education in Travancore is far in advance of what it is elsewhere in India and we find girls competing with boys on equal terms in Schools and Colleges. Co-education is very popular. Not only do boys and girls attend the same classes but they are taught by men and women teachers. This is so not only in Primary and Middle Schools but also in High Schools and Colleges. There are lady professors in the University College and women teachers in Boys' High Schools. In all departments including the judiciary and the magistracy, there are ladies occupying responsible positions.²

Interest Shown by the Rulers : The rapid advancement of Travancore during the last 150 years is mainly due to the enlightened policy followed by a long line of strong and able rulers. This is especially so in the field of education. If Travancore is educationally the most advanced State in India today, it is due to the foresight and self-sacrifice of her rulers. As early as 1817, Her Highness Rani Gauri Parvathi Bayi enunciated the fundamental principle of the educational policy of the State when she declared that the education of the people is the primary concern of the State and its cost should be borne by the State exchequer. (This policy was consistently followed by succeeding rulers as well.) . . . It is true that private agencies have made valuable contribution in the cause of education in the State ; but they have always received munificent gifts of land and money from the Government. Government grant forms the lion's share in the income of Private Schools and half the teacher's salary is contributed by Government. In the Budget for the year 1946-47 Rs. 97.65 lakhs is earmarked for education and this constitutes 11.9 per cent of the State Revenue.³

Another reason for the educational advance of Travancore is the large percentage of Indian Christians in the total population of the State. The Census of 1941 showed that out of a total population of 60.70 lakhs, 35.4 lakhs were Hindus, 4.33 lakhs were Muslims and 19.6 lakhs (i.e. over 32 per cent) were Christians. Historically, the origin of this large Christian population is to be traced to three factors. The first is the existence of large numbers of Syrian Christians in the State (as in other parts of Malabar) from very early times. After the visit of Vasco de Gama and the establishment of the Portuguese power on the Western coast of India,

¹ *The Trivandrum Training College, Journal of Education*, June, 1947, p. 31

² *Ibid.*, p. 33.

³ *Ibid.*, pp. 31-2.

the Roman Catholic Missions began to work in Travancore and converted a number of persons—Syrian Christians as well as non-Christian Indians—to the Roman Catholic faith. The Protestant Missions were the last to come in the field. The London Missionary Society began to work in the southern part of the State since 1806 and excellent pioneer work was done by its enthusiastic missionary, Rev. W. T. Ringeltaube. Similarly, at the suggestion of Colonel Munro, the then Resident at Travancore, Bailey, Baker, and Fenn—the three capable workers of the Church Missionary Society—began their endeavours in the northern parts of the State in 1816. In no part of India was mission work so successful as in Travancore and as early as 1875, when the first census was held, Christians numbered 466,874 in a total population of 2,311,379 or about 20 per cent. Of these 295,770 were Syrians, 109,820 were Roman Catholics, and the rest, Protestants. The work of proselytisation that had thus received a good start continued to expand and, as stated already, the Indian Christians form about 32 per cent of the population at present and enjoy the position of the second largest community in the State. The Indian Christians, it is to be noted, are an educationally advanced community and as they are mostly converted from the lowest strata of the Hindu Society, a large Christian population is a double asset, partly because it reduces the magnitude of the problem of educating the backward classes and partly because its higher attainments help in raising the educational standard of the society as a whole.

(a) *Early History of Education in Travancore (1817-1902)* : In 1811, Gauri Laxmi Bayi ascended the Gadi and with her accession, the modern period in the history of Travancore may be said to have begun. A year earlier, Colonel J. Munro had been appointed as the Resident in Travancore and it was mainly due to his exertions and interest that the administration of the State was modernised and the necessary background for educational progress was created.

Reference has already been made to the Declaration on education made by Rani Gauri Parvati Bayi in 1817. But this had an effect on the indigenous schools only, which now began to receive the support of the Government ; and no attempt was made, prior to 1834, to provide English Schools under the direct control of the State. In that year, an English school was opened at Trivandrum and, a little later, a few District Schools were also started as feeders to it. This was the beginning of the State system of English education in Travancore. It must be noted, however, that the missionaries had started English schools in the State even earlier and that the State had given them very liberal assistance right from the beginning.

The next important event in the history of education in the State was the creation of the *Vernacular Education Department* in the State in 1866. Sir T. Madhav Rao, one of the ablest of Indian administrators of the nineteenth century, was the Dewan of the State from 1858 to 1872 and his tenure of office witnessed several reforms, particularly in education.

The cause of Education was dear to Sir Madhava Row, and it made rapid strides during his administration. A fully equipped Arts College at Trivandrum,

scores of English and Vernacular schools all over the country, Girls' schools, and a Book-Committee for the preparation of the necessary text-books, are so many beacon-lights that mark his career in Travancore. The organisation of a special Department of Vernacular Education claims our special notice. The necessity for establishing proper Vernacular schools conducted on a sound basis forced itself on the consideration of Government for some time and about the close of 1041 M.E. (1865 A.D.), the Maharajah sanctioned an annual expenditure of Rs. 20,000 in this direction. The scheme comprised the establishment of a Central Vernacular School at the capital, a school in each Taluq of the State, a Normal School for the training of teachers and the formation of a Book-Committee composed of a President and three members who should translate or compile such works as were in common use in English schools, the whole to be supervised by a Director of Vernacular Education with the assistance of two Inspectors whose duty it was to periodically inspect the schools and report upon them.¹

The policy of the Vernacular Education Department was very favourable to expansion. While taking all possible steps to improve the qualifications of teachers, the Department did not object to aiding schools in charge of untrained or even unqualified teachers so long as they were serving a useful purpose in the locality. Secondly, it recognised, right up to 1895, a two-class primary school as a self-contained unit. Later on, a demand was made to the effect that the third or fourth year classes should be developed wherever possible, but the two-class school was not definitely prohibited. Thirdly, the Department laid great stress on aiding private schools rather than on establishing new schools under its direct control—a policy with which all the three important communities in the State co-operated. The Hindus had their age-old indigenous schools which were now encouraged and financially assisted; the Missions started a very large number of schools, primarily for their own flocks, which also obtained liberal grants-in-aid; and the Muslims, although a small minority, also organised their own schools wherever possible. Owing to this far-sighted policy, education in general, and primary education in particular, made great progress—and the census of 1901 gave a literacy percentage of 12.4 (21.5 for males and 3.1 for females) which is a little higher than that of India as a whole even in 1941.

The educational position in Travancore at the opening of the twentieth century is thus described by the *Imperial Gazetteer* :—

In 1890-1 there were 2,418 institutions of all classes and grades, with 104,616 pupils. By the end of the next decade, the numbers had increased by more than one-half. Of the total of 3,727 institutions returned in 1903-4, 439 were State schools, 1,040 private aided, and 2,248 private unaided. The pupils under instruction in these three classes of institutions numbered respectively 51,169 (26 per cent of the total), 59,430 (30 per cent), and 86,786 (44 per cent). Of the total number of institutions, 3,525 were primary, 169 secondary, and 28 training or special schools, besides 6 colleges. Classified by sex, the pupils numbered 151,053 boys (77 per cent of the total) and 46,332 girls (23 per cent); grouped by religion, 63 per cent were Hindus, 32 per cent Christians, and 5 per cent Muhammadans. The most noticeable feature in the educational statistics of recent years is the great advance made in female education. With the spread

¹ V. N. Aiyar : *op. cit.* pp. 548-9.

of institutions for their instruction, the number of girl pupils more than trebled during the decade ending 1890, and more than doubled during the next decade. In 1903-4 female education was provided for in 2 Arts colleges, 3 English high schools, 1 vernacular high school, 7 English middle schools, 33 vernacular middle schools, and 138 vernacular primary schools. Education is free in all these institutions. Another feature in the educational history of the State is the effort made to bring the backward classes and the hill tribes under instruction, by the opening of special schools and the sanction of increased grants, etc. In 1903-4 about 44,000 of these people were under instruction in 480 public schools. Five institutions situated on the hills are mainly intended for the hill tribes. The part played by the missionary bodies in the diffusion of education among all classes, and among the depressed in particular, is very considerable.

The total expenditure on education amounted in 1903-4 to 6.6 lakhs, of which about 1.3 lakhs was derived from fees, etc. Of this total 27.4 per cent was devoted to primary schools.¹

(b) *History of Education in Travancore (1902-30)*: The lead in education which Travancore thus secured by her liberal educational policy was kept up during the next three decades. In 1930-1 (1106 M.E.) the statistics of pupils under instruction were as follows :—

	Boys.	Girls.	Total.
1. Colleges	2,472	230	2,702
2. English schools	40,341	12,809	53,150
3. Primary schools	308,885	206,882	515,767

The census of 1931 showed that Travancore still led the whole of India in educational progress and had a literacy percentage of 23.9.

(c) *Report of the Statham Committee*: Good as this progress was, the people in Travancore were not satisfied with the existing state of affairs in education and were demanding reforms of various kinds to make their educational system still better. The progress of literacy was not proportional to the expansion of education, due mainly to certain weak points in the organisation of the educational system. The Government of the State also was not very happy about the situation. It was already spending 20.6 per cent of its revenues on education and, being unable to grant additional funds, was rather anxious to find out if things could be improved without straining the resources of the State still further. The occasion for a comprehensive enquiry was also felt to be opportune because the present Maharaja ascended the throne in 1931. An Educational Reorganisation Committee was, therefore, appointed and it submitted its report in 1933. As Shri Jivanayagam wrote :—

Creditable as this state of affairs is, there is a dark side to the picture. The educational advance has been bought at the cost of crushing educational expenditure, which goes on increasing year by year and threatens to strain the financial

resources of the State. Neither the quality of the education imparted nor its product has been of a nature to reassure the public mind. The purely literary type of education given has led to the over-crowding of the liberal profession and of the State services and has created acute educated unemployment. The schools and colleges have turned out boys and girls ill-equipped for the struggle for existence. There came a time when the public demanded educational reforms and a committee was appointed which has just published the report of its inquiries and made recommendations for reorganizing the educational system.

It was fortunate that the committee had as its chairman Mr. R. M. Satham, M.A., I.E.S., C.I.E., who after holding many appointments, both teaching and administrative, in the educational department of the Government of Madras was secretary to the Auxiliary Committee on Education of the Simon Commission, presided over by Sir Philip Hartog and shared in the inquiries which resulted in the Hartog Report. His proposals for educational reform in Travancore may, therefore, be said to have emanated out of the background of his all-India experiences.¹

The recommendations of the Satham Committee were generally on the lines of the recommendations made in the Hartog Report. Some of the more important of them are given below :—

Primary Education

(i) No attempt should be made to introduce immediate compulsion; but efforts should be concentrated on improvement and elimination of wastage.

(ii) An ordinary primary school should have *five* classes; all incomplete schools, except those that are run as feeders, should be abolished.

(iii) Children below 5 should not be admitted to primary schools.

(iv) All overlapping of school provision should be carefully scrutinised and done away with.

(v) Primary schools should be co-educational.

(vi) There should be common schools for all communities; all competition between communal schools should be stopped; and wherever necessary, provision of religious instruction should be made in common schools.

(vii) Harijans should be encouraged to attend common schools and given mid-day meals, books and clothes.

(viii) Attempts should be made to reduce wastage and stagnation.

(ix) Training of teachers should be expanded.

(x) The primary school should become a community centre; adult education and rural reconstruction work should be undertaken by primary teachers; and the curriculum should be revised.

Secondary and University Education

(xi) There should be a departmental examination at the end of the fourth form; only the brighter pupils should be allowed to proceed to the pre-university classes, and others should be diverted to practical and pre-vocational courses.

(xii) Degree courses should be concentrated in the science colleges; residence in hostels should be compulsory for degree students (with interdicting, if possible); and more attention should be given to social and athletic activities.

(xiii) A college of technology should be established.

¹ J. D. Jivannayagam: *Reorganizing Education in Travancore* (Teaching, Vol. VI), p. 6

(xiv) A separate University for Travancore should also be established as soon as connection with Madras university becomes no longer necessary.

(d) *Progress of Education in Travancore between 1931 and 1947* : Education made very great progress in Travancore between 1931 and 1947. The census of 1941 showed that Travancore still maintained its lead over the rest of India and had a literacy percentage of 47.7. In 1943, the Government of Travancore appointed a Committee to make recommendations regarding the reconstruction of education in the State. The Report of this Committee, popularly known as the *Papworth Committee* or the *Education Reorganisation Committee*, is a very important document and educational reconstruction in the State is now being attempted broadly on the lines recommended by this Committee. It would, therefore, be convenient to review the principal events of the period 1931 to 1947 in the light of the recommendations made by the Statham and Papworth Committees.

(i) *Incomplete Schools* : In 1930, out of a total of 3,072 primary schools, 268 had only one class; 696 had only two classes; and 710 had three classes only. The Statham Committee had emphasized the five-class primary school. The recommendation was accepted by Government and so well carried out in practice, that, in 1946-47, only 35 schools had one class, 166 had two classes and 177, three classes. As against these small numbers, 647 schools had four classes and as many as 2,121 had five classes.

(ii) *Training of Teachers* : In 1931, sixty per cent of the teachers in primary schools were untrained. In 1946-47, the number of trained primary teachers rose to 13,659 as against 3,431 only who were untrained.

(iii) *Overlapping of Schools* : (In 1931).

Missions of different denominations each had their own schools; communal organizations had schools of their own; and private individuals ran venture schools. There was a great deal of overlapping among these schools: some were started in places where they were not needed; and places which needed schools went without one. Hence, the distribution of schools left a great deal to be desired. . . . (The Statham Committee had recommended the abolition of overlapping schools. This recommendation was accepted and vigorously acted upon). . . . Many of the schools which were abolished were overlapping schools. Where the overlapping was between a departmental and a private school other things being equal, the departmental school was withdrawn. As between private school and private school, many considerations were weighed before one of them was told to withdraw; and even then, some managements got another school somewhere else. In this manner, this unpopular work was accomplished without giving rise to much offence.¹

(iv) *Co-education in Primary Schools* : In 1930, the number of girls reading in co-educational primary schools was only 138,350 while the total number of girls attending primary schools was 206,882. On the recommendation of the Statham Committee, co-education was adopted, in 1934, as the declared official policy of the State.

¹ M. D. Jivanayakom : *Primary Education in Travancore* (Teaching, Vol. XIV), pp. 123-5.

Though a Chief Inspectress of Girls' Schools has been retained and a few Assistant Inspectresses of schools for inspecting Girls' Middle and High Schools (English and Malayalam and Tamil), primary schools are now inspected by women or men Assistant Inspecting Officers whether they are boys' primary schools or girls' primary schools. Even in 1930 more girls studied in boys' schools than in girls' schools, but in 1930 the number of girls in co-educational schools was 138,350 out of a total 206,882; in 1939 it was 261,377 out of a total of 294,404. The staff has also become mixed. Therefore, there are now only primary schools and not boys' primary schools and girls' primary schools. This is very economic, as will be apparent in a place which has enough boys and girls to fill one school completely, but not enough boys for one school and enough girls for another. Under the old order where two schools with two sets of staff and equipment were necessary, now one school suffices.¹

(v) *Education of Harijans* : Even prior to 1930

most of the schools had been open to the depressed classes, but in recent years inducements have been offered to children of the backward and depressed classes to study in ordinary schools. Special grants were given to teachers in schools where there was a large number of depressed-class pupils in classes IV and V; Readers were distributed free; a per capita grant of 8 annas was given to depressed-class children in classes III and IV. A number of Harijan schools have now been started, and in the matter of recognition and aid the stricter conditions of the Code have been relaxed.²

(vi) *Curriculum* : In 1930,

The curriculum followed in the schools was as old as 1910. A revision was ordered in 1919 and the curriculum of girls' schools was revised in 1922, but nothing had been done in regard to boys' schools, though the revision had been under consideration for 12 years. The new methods which were agitating the minds of educationists elsewhere, had not effected entry into Travancore schools. (The position was considerably improved as a result of the Statham Report.) In recent years, the curriculum has been greatly enriched. Hygiene and civics have found a place, and music and sewing have become popular arts. Music teachers and dancing masters are being trained against the day when these activities will become universal in the schools. Soul-killing drill is being liberalized by the introduction of joyful games. Extra-curricular activities are becoming more and more common. Scouting and guiding are being Indianized. The Junior Red Cross and the Highway Code are making their appearance. School gardens are subjects of rivalry between schools.³

The Papworth Committee suggests further curricular reform although it does not accept the Basic Education syllabus as *the* syllabus. It says :—

With regard to the curriculum in primary schools, the Committee agrees with the general view that in the primary stage the curriculum must be thought of "less in terms of knowledge to be taught and more in terms of activities to be fostered and interests to be broadened" and it must consist of a series of "purposeful, spontaneous activities centring round the characteristic interests of the child at this period of its life and arising naturally out of its environment." In this connexion, the Committee had the advantage of examining the model syllabus for primary schools prepared by one of its members. This syllabus,

¹ M. D. Jivanayakom : *Primary Education in Travancore* (Teaching, Vol. XIV), p. 125.

² *Ibid.*, pp. 125-6.

³ *Report*, pp. 16-7.

though not inserted in this report as we desire as far as possible to concentrate on educational principles rather than details, will be available to those charged with the duty of reorganizing primary education. We trust and expect that the deepest consideration will be bestowed on this problem by experts, and that teachers will be trained in the most up-to-date methods to relate primary school teaching to the children's lives and experiences, and also to use, especially in the lower classes, playway methods and reduce formal teaching to a minimum. These recommendations imply that rigidity and uniformity will cease to be features of primary school curricula and methods of teaching. Variety and experimentation should be welcomed and encouraged. To help in achieving this, the Committee recommends that 'Special Schools' which provide alternative methods of primary education, such as Montessori, Project, Kindergarten, etc., should be permitted and granted recognition.¹

(vii) *Compulsory education* : The Statham Committee, as stated already, was against compulsion. But the Papworth Committee recommended that universal, compulsory and free primary education should be introduced in the State, area by area. This recommendation was accepted by Government and a Primary Education Act was passed in 1946. Under its provisions, compulsion was introduced in two talukas in 1946-47 and it is proposed to extend the Act to the whole of the State in a period of 10 years. As A. Sankara Pillai writes :—

The question has been asked whether the State will be able to shoulder the responsibility of having to finance education if they make it compulsory and assume direct management of all primary schools. The answer to the question is the shift system which has been adopted in the Primary Schools. The School works in two shifts, the lower classes attend school in the afternoon while the upper classes do so in the forenoon. Thus one batch of teachers can handle two batches of pupils and there is no appreciable rise in the number of teachers needed. Meanwhile school hours have been extended from 9 in the morning to 5 in the evening and Saturday has been made a working day. But the timetable is so drawn up that each teacher has work only for five hours every day. Thus Travancore has given an answer to the two knotty problems raised by the Sargent Report—the question of cost and the question of time. Instead of the forty-year plan proposed by Central Advisory Board, Travancore has a ten-year plan and the problem of cost has been solved by introducing the shift system.²

(viii) *Middle Schools* : The Papworth Committee made far-reaching recommendations regarding middle-school education which have been accepted by Government. Their effect has thus been described by A. Sankara Pillai :—

Secondary School Education follows a double track at present. From the Primary School, the pupil proceeds either to the Malayalam or Tamil Middle School, or to the English Middle School. The fee is much higher in the English School and great prominence is given to the study of English there, ten out of thirty-five periods being devoted to it. As it leads to the English High School directly and thence to the University, the richer and the more ambitious pupils seek entrance to it. The Malayalam Middle School is intended to be the finishing stage of Primary School Education and so has an ambitious curriculum and due prominence is given to the study of the regional language and its literature.

¹ Report, pp. 16-7.

² *The Trivandrum Training College, Journal of Education*, June, 1947, pp. 47-8.

English is also one of the subjects taught. Nevertheless it has an inferiority complex about it and the well-to-do pupils shun it as a rule. The English Middle School course is of 4 years duration and the Malayalam one of three. At the end there is a Public examination and successful candidates are admitted to the High School. There are two types of High Schools, the Malayalam or Tamil High School which is of two years' duration, and the English High School which is of three years. At the end of the English High School is the English School Leaving Examination which is both a school leaving and a matriculation Examination. Pupils who pass it are eligible for admission to a College affiliated to the University of Travancore. Similarly at the end of the Malayalam High School is the Malayalam High School Examination. There is provision for transfer from the Malayalam Middle and High Schools to the English Middle and High Schools. But owing to the higher standard of English expected in English Schools, the successful M. M. School pupil is admitted only to the second form and the successful Malayalam High School pupil only to the fourth form. The English School Leaving Certificate is the minimum qualification prescribed for entrance into the ministerial services in the Travancore Government and Malayalam Middle School Leaving Certificate holders and Malayalam High School Certificate holders are mostly recruited as teachers in the primary schools after undergoing training in a Training School. . . .

The defects of the existing organisation have been fully realised by the government and the public. The segregation of the élite of the state in English Schools from the tender age of 9 is not conducive to national solidarity, but tends to widen the gulf between the lower and the upper classes. Besides it has a bad psychological effect on the pupils themselves giving an inferiority feeling to the Malayalam school pupils and a snobbish outlook to the English School pupils. Educationally also the present organisation is unsound. The four-year primary course is too short even to secure permanent literacy among the pupils who leave it. . . . The remedy for all these lies in making primary education compulsory and extending it to another year. This is the recommendation of the Education Reorganisation Committee and the proposal has been accepted by Government. The fifth class has been opened in Primary Schools and the five-year primary school has begun to function from this year in the compulsory areas. Similarly it is proposed to reform middle school education. Though the Malayalam Middle School is intended to be the finishing stage of the basic education imparted in the primary school, the courses of study there have been unduly influenced by the English School curriculum and therefore do not serve the purpose for which they were designed. Besides, a double track during the middle school stage is not sound and so a common middle school is to be organised from the beginning of the next school year. A single track system to the end of the Middle School followed by bifurcated courses into Academic and Technical High schools in the next stage is another important recommendation of The Education Reorganisation Committee. Thus the educational ladder is to be changed from the four-year primary, three-year Middle School, and two-year High School Course for the Malayalam School pupils, and four-year primary, four-year Middle School, and three-year High School for English School pupils into a common five-year primary, and three-year Middle School course for all pupils followed by a three-year Academic or Technical High School Course.¹

(ix) *University Education* : Reference has already been made to the establishment of the Travancore University. Attempts are now being made to reorganise the educational system of this university.

¹ *The Trivandrum Training College, Journal of Education*, June, 1947, pp. 38-40.

It is realised that the Indian undergraduate is too young to shoulder the responsibilities of college life compared to the undergraduates in other countries. Besides much of the work that is attempted in the Intermediate Classes is really High School work. So it is proposed to split up the four-year College into a one-year pre-university Course leading to an examination more or less equivalent to the present Intermediate and a three year degree course. The Pre-university School is to be under the administrative Control of the Education Department while the College course is to be completely under the University. Thus a thorough reorganisation of the Educational system from the top to the bottom is being attempted and the reorganised system is designed to give efficient educational service to the people of the State.¹

(x) *Educational Statistics (1946-47)* : The statistics given on page 891 for 1122 M.E. (1946-47) will show the great educational advance achieved by the State since 1931. On these statistics, the Report of the Education Department for the year 1122 M.E. observes :—

Of the total number of 1,091,766 pupils under instruction during 1122, 623,399 were boys and 468,367 were girls. The percentage of the total number under instruction during the year to the total population (6,070,018) according to the census of 1941 was 17.98. The percentage of the male pupils to the male population (3,045,102) was 20.5 ; and the percentage of female pupils to the female population (3,024,916) was 15.5. Of the total number under instruction, 49.2 per cent were in private institutions and 50.8 per cent in Departmental institutions. The total number of pupils between the ages of 5 and 10 attending schools was 637,018 of whom 342,940 were boys and 294,078 were girls. Taking the number of children of the school-going age *viz.*, those between the ages of 5 and 10 as 877,513 according to the Census of 1941, the percentage of pupils in Schools between the ages of 5 and 10 to the number of children of school-going age was 72.6.²

(e) *Nationalisation of Primary Education* : When Sir C. P. Ramaswamy Iyer was the Dewan of the State, he evolved a scheme of nationalising primary education. The principal object of the scheme was to bring all primary education under the exclusive and direct control of the State. This was proposed to be accomplished by refusing aid to all private primary schools so that they might either be closed down or handed over to the State for management. In favour of the proposal, it was argued that (i) all overlapping and duplication that follows inevitably in the wake of private enterprise by denominational agencies would be avoided ; (ii) that common schools for all children provided on a secular basis will increase the solidarity of the people ; and (iii) that the introduction and enforcement of compulsory education would be facilitated. On the other hand, the scheme was very stoutly opposed by the Christian community, particularly by the Roman Catholics, who insisted on their right to conduct private Schools and receive State-aid. As Dr. E. A. Pires said :—

Progressive educational philosophy has now accepted certain principles as having universal validity, and one of these principles is the principle of democracy in education. This principle has several implications, but the implication with which we are here and now concerned is the right of different communities and

¹ *The Trivandrum Training College, Journal of Education*, June 1947, pp. 40-1.

² p. 56.

Educational Statistics (1946-47)

	Departmental.		Aided.		Unaided.		Total.	
	No. of Institutions.	No. of Scholars.	No. of Institutions.	No. of Scholars.	No. of Institutions.	No. of Scholars.	No. of Institutions.	No. of Scholars.
1. Pre-University School	1	387	..	..	1	254	2	641
2. High Schools (Boys)	34	25,327	2	628	113	63,716	149	89,671
3. High Schools (Girls)	8	3,329	21	6,300	9	3,962	38	13,591
4. Middle Schools (Boys)	185	26,637	139	30,764	212	42,316	536	99,717
5. Middle Schools (Girls)	50	3,940	45	14,135	8	1,061	103	19,136
6. Primary Schools	1,428	494,575	1,681	361,694	37	3,749	3,146	860,018
7. Training Schools	12	450	5	157	20	613	37	1,220
8. Sanskrit Schools	1	144	36	5,585	3	298	40	6,027
9. Other Schools	4	217	19	1,305	2	223	25	1,745
Total	1,723	555,006	1,948	420,568	405	116,192	4,076	1,091,766

of different denominations to have their own schools, maintained, of course, at State expense, and to impart religious instruction in their schools to their own children in their own faith and practices. This principle has now been accepted in every democratic state; in fact, it would be a contradiction in terms to call a State democratic where the right of religious denominations to have their own schools is denied. The decision of the Travancore Government, therefore, "to assume the control and management of primary education," coupled with its decision to refuse any financial aid to private bodies desirous of conducting their own schools, entitles us who are so adversely affected by these decisions to brand that government as ill-advised and prejudiced, if not unjust and dictatorial. The State cannot monopolise education, even if it is primary education, because education is primarily the right and duty of the family. It is rather the business of the State to protect and foster the legitimate rights of the family in this matter, be the family Hindu, Christian, Muslim, Parsi or Jew.¹

The agitation was extremely intensive and prolonged with the result that the State was not able to implement the policy and ultimately, the idea was dropped. Aid was again offered to all the old private schools, although under certain rigid conditions. As the Report of the Education Department for 1946-7 observes :—

The policy of taking over such of the non-departmental Primary Schools in the area whose managements offered to surrender them (on lease basis) was continued and as many as 169 schools with 879 teachers were taken over to the Department. . . . During the year 1121 the Roman Catholic Primary Schools remained as unrecognised institutions. Finally however the Catholic Schools applied for recognition as denominational institutions and financial aid was granted to them at the same rate as before, provided the minimum strength is maintained and the schools observed the character of a Denominational Schools. New schools were however not given any financial aid.²

5. EDUCATION IN KASHMIR. The history of education in Kashmir has attracted considerable attention. Dr. G. N. Kaul has written a thesis on *Promotion of learning in Kashmir during the Hindu Period (273 B.C. to 1339 A.D.)* which has been accepted by the University of Bombay. Dr. G. M. D. Sufi, has written *Kashir*, a scholarly history of Kashmir³, which contains a detailed account of education in Kashmir under the Muslim Rule. Unfortunately, no history of education in Kashmir in the modern period is available. This is probably due to the fact that there is really so little to write about; and it can be said that, even in 1946-7, Kashmir was one of the most educationally backward States of India.

The modern period in Kashmir can be said to have begun in 1846 when it came under the Dogra Rule and, by the treaty of Amritsar, the British Government recognised *Maharaja Gulab Singh* as the ruler of Jammu and Kashmir. He ruled till 1857; but most of his time was taken up in consolidating his authority and in setting up a stable administration, so that he was not able to pay any attention to educational development. But here, as elsewhere in India, the pioneer work was done by the missionaries. As early as 1854, "Rev. R. Clark and Colonel Martin came

¹ E. A. Pires : *Pedagogic Musings*, p. 329.

² pp. 27-8.

³ This has been published by the University of the Punjab (1949) in two volumes.

to Kashmir to reconnoitre the field for Christian missionary activity. Gulab Singh was quite willing that they should preach in Kashmir, saying that the people were so bad already that padres could do them no harm, and he was curious to see if they could do them any good."¹

The next Maharaja was *Ranbir Singh* (1858-85) and modern education in Kashmir may be said to have begun under him. He was a great patron of Sanskrit learning and the measures adopted by him to encourage it are thus described by Dr. Sufi :—

A Pathshala or College and a library of Sanskrit works were the foremost objects of the Maharaja's care. In the Pathshala, he provided for the tuition and support of several hundreds of Brahman pupils, who were to be trained in the various branches of Sanskrit learning. For the library the collection of manuscripts was simultaneously begun. Translations into Hindi of standard works, selected from the whole range of the Darshanas, the Dharma and the other Shastras, were executed, and partly printed with the object of spreading a knowledge of classical Hindu learning among the Maharaja's Dogra subjects through the Dogri language. As a matter of fact, Dogri was greatly improved and encouraged. Diacritical marks which did not exist in the old Dogri were introduced on the model of Hindi. Pandit Govind Kaul was appointed to the charge of the Translation Department. Persian and Arabic works on historical, philosophical, and other subjects were translated into Sanskrit with the assistance of Maulavis. The Vidya Bilas Press was installed.²

The private charities of Maharaja Gulab Singh and Ranbir Singh and other assignments and allocations of several lakhs were constituted by the *A'in-i-Dharmarth* (or regulations for the Dharmarth drafted in Persian) for the benefit of Hindu temples and Sanskrit learning. . . . When Maharaja Gulab Singh "assumed the reins of Government he took pains in the progress of the holy religion of the Hindus as well as in the construction of the various temples, the result of which was that temples arose in the various towns of the State of Jammu." He ordained that a treasury called the Treasury of Shri Raghunathji be established wherein five lakhs of rupees be invested and the interest of money be appropriated for the permanent maintenance of *Sadavarts* (places of distribution of food, etc., to travellers). In conformity with Maharaja Gulab Singh's wishes, Ranbir Singh. . . placed the maintenance of *Sadavarts* on a permanent footing Six hundred *vidyarthi*s (scholars) were to be kept on under tuition on behalf of His Highness in schools in temples according to the *A'in-i-Dharmarth*.³

Maharaja Ranbir Singh also created an Education Department and gave a liberal donation to the University of the Punjab for which he was nominated as one of its first Fellows in 1882. It was during the rule of Ranbir Singh that the missionaries also started their educational and medical work in the State in right earnest. In 1864, the Kashmir Medical Mission of the Church Missionary Society was founded by Rev. Robert Clark and educational work was started by Rev. J. H. Knowles in 1880. But even the combined result of State and missionary effort in education was so small that the education of the masses remained in an extremely

¹ *Kashmir*, p. 782.

² *Ibid.*, p. 790.

³ p. 29.

low state. The statistics of 1885 are not available; but even in 1891, the State conducted or aided only 45 institutions with 3,776 pupils.

Maharaja Pratap Singh succeeded Ranbir Singh in 1885 and ruled over the State till 1925. Unfortunately, he too did very little to spread education among the people. At the close of the nineteenth century, therefore, Kashmir was extremely backward in education. As the *Imperial Gazetteer* observed :—

The Census of 1901 showed how little attention was formerly paid to education. In that year only 2 per cent. of the population could read and write. Among males the proportion rises to 3·8 per cent., while among the total female population only 1,260 were literate. Hindus appear to be much better educated than Muhammadans. In 1900-1 the State maintained 87 schools, attended by 6,197 boys.¹

Things improved to some extent in the twentieth century although progress continued to be very slow.

The college, opened at Srinagar through the efforts of Mrs. Annie Besant early in 1905, was taken over by the State and named the Sri Pratap College. With 1,187 students on its rolls this college, in 1938, had the distinction of being the second largest college affiliated to the Punjab University. At Jammu was established, in 1907, the Prince of Wales College, which, at one time, was the only institution affiliated to the Punjab University in geology. Many high schools, and a large number of primary schools were established throughout the State.²

But even in 1925 when the long rule of this Maharaja came to an end, there were only 706 educational institutions in the State with an enrolment of 44,601 and the total educational budget was only Rs. 10.75 lakhs. The census of 1921 showed that only 2.6 per cent of the people were literate.

Literacy among the males is 2.0 per cent., while among the females it is 1.6 per thousand. In the villages, illiteracy of the Muslim masses is colossal. In hundreds of villages not a single Muslim male or female knows even how to write his or her name or count two dozen sheep.³

Maharaja Hari Singh came to the Gadi in 1925. Education received much greater attention at his hands than in the past and, with the sanctioning of more liberal grants, the number of schools and scholars began to increase. Hitherto, one of the principal complaints of the people had been that almost all the important posts were given to non-Kashmiris. This policy was now changed. A rule was made to the effect that all ordinary vacancies should, as far as possible be filled by State-subjects and an attempt was made to train them specially for it.

In 1930, a compulsory Education Act was passed and under it compulsion was introduced (age-group of 6-11 only) in the towns of Srinagar, Jammu, Sopra, Baramula, Mirpur and Udhampur in due course. But by far the most significant event of this period was the appointment, in 1938, of Shri. K. G. Saiyidain as the Director of Education. He held the post for about seven years and under his enthusiastic and inspiring guidance, the State made considerable progress in education.

¹ p. 141.

² *Kashmir*, p. 813.

³ *Ibid.*, p. 823.

In June 1938, immediately after the appointment of Shri. K. G. Saiyidain, Government appointed a committee, under his chairmanship, for reorganisation of education in the State. The main recommendations of the Committee were as follows :—

1. The gradual introduction of the scheme of Basic Education in all the Primary Schools of the State with such modifications as may be required in view of local conditions ;
2. The introduction of practical and realistic education in all the Basic as well as non-Basic schools and the consequent revision of the syllabus and allotment of its due place to craft-work ;
3. The improvement of the professional efficiency and status of teachers of all grades ;
4. The vigorous pursuit of a programme of Adult Education with the object, ultimately, of liquidating the overwhelming illiteracy in the State ;
5. The opening of a large number of new schools every year, so that, within a reasonably short time, no place with a population of 500 or more should be without a school ; and
6. The gradual abolition of the wasteful and ineffective, one-teacher schools by the appointment of additional teachers.

This programme suggested by the Committee received the general approval of Government and was vigorously implemented, both qualitatively and quantitatively, during the next six years. The following data regarding education in 1938 and 1944 given on the next page will give an idea of the progress achieved :—

(iv) *Training Institutions (Men)* :—In 1938, there was one small S. V. Training School at Udhampur for about 30 teachers. By 1944, there were (1) 2 Teachers' Training Schools at Srinagar and Jammu, training 200 teachers a year for B. E. C. Examination ; (2) Teachers' Training College for training 45 graduate teachers ; (3) 11 Refresher Courses conducted annually for about 400 primary school teachers ; (4) Annual Refresher Courses for graduates ; and (5) Refresher Courses for Headmasters of Middle Schools.

(v) *Training Institutions (Women)* :—In 1938, there were J. V. Classes attached to Government Girls' High Schools at Jammu and Srinagar for about 20 teachers. In 1944, there were (1) 2 Teachers' Training schools at Jammu and Srinagar for about 50 women teachers ; and (2) Refresher Courses for teachers.

(vi) *Inspecting Agency (Men)* :—In 1938, there were 3 Inspectors, 9 Assistant Inspectors, and 2 Assistant District Inspectors. In 1944, their number was greatly increased and there were 47 Inspectors (including the Inspector of Technical Schools), 9 Assistant Inspectors, 21 Assistant District Inspectors ; and 1 Adult Education Officer with 2 Assistants.

(vii) *Inspecting Agency (Women)* :—In 1938, there was one Chief Inspectress with 2 Inspectresses. In 1944, the staff consisted of one Deputy Directress and 4 Inspectresses, all properly qualified and trained.

(viii) *Craft work* :—In 1938, it was almost non-existent. In 1944, however, it had been introduced in all types of schools.

(ix) *Adult Education* :—It was not organised at all in 1938. Now a great movement had been organised for the spread of literacy and adult education classes were organised in all parts of the State.

Education in 1933 and 1944

	1938.	1944.
(i) <i>Literacy</i>	(1931)	(1941)
Men	5.92	11.1
Women '	6.53	2.2
Total	3.39	6.9
(ii) <i>Educational Institutions</i>		
(Boys' Institutions)		
Arts Colleges	2	4 plus 2 (Private)
High Schools	22	40
(Govt. and Aided)		
Middle Schools	92	102
Primary Schools	910	1,144
Normal Schools for Teachers ..	1	2
Private and Indigenous Schools ..	3	Nil
Maktabas and Pathshalas	169	187
(Girls' Institutions)		
High Schools	2	8
Middle Schools	34	44
Primary Schools	155	239
Primary Institutions Unaided ..	5	Nil
Maktabas and Pathshalas	8	2
Training Schools for Teachers ..	Nil	2
(iii) <i>Education Budget</i>	Rs. 20,50,000	Rs. 34,02,000

(x) *Extra-curricular Activities in Schools* :—In 1938, Games and Physical Drill were the only extra-curricular activities. In 1944, they included (1) Social service, (2) Labour week, (3) Games and Physical training, (4) Self-expressional projects, and (5) Hobbies of the most varied kinds.

In 1944, the Maharaja appointed a Committee to prepare plans of post-war educational development in the State. It submitted its report in 1945 and made very far-reaching and comprehensive suggestions. But before any effective action could be taken thereon, the period under review came to a close.

6. EDUCATION IN GWALIOR. Gwalior also is an educationally backward State. The following extract from *Gwalior Today*, gives a bird's-eye view of the growth of education in the State during the last one hundred years :—

The first school organised on western lines was established in Lashkar in 1846—an institution which has since grown into the well-known College. This

was followed by 20 other schools with 2,400 pupils in all. Organised education made rapid progress and in 1857 a Government notification announced that all villages with over 2,000 inhabitants would have schools, the fees to depend on the boys' capacity to pay. Teachers were to be paid from four to five rupees a month.

In 1860 Maharaja Jayaji Rao was able to take a personal interest in the State's educational programme and he sanctioned a budget of Rs. 17,500 for schools. This was increased the following year to Rs. 20,000 and in 1863 a regular Education Department was set up with a budget of Rs. 26,000. Twenty-three years later, on Maharaja Jayaji Rao's death, there were 90 schools and 5,400 pupils. The year 1890 saw the production of the Gwalior Education Manual and the division of schools into four grades: lower primary, upper primary, anglo-vernacular and high schools.

The beginning of the 20th century saw rapid progress under the energetic guidance of Maharaja Madhav Rao. By 1911 there were: one college, four high schools, 29 middle schools, 321 primary schools, 10 girls' schools and seven special institutions, with 21,500 students in all. The education budget was Rs. 3,55,358. By 1925, the year of Maharaja Madhav Rao's death, the number of educational institutions in the State had risen to 1,056, with a budget of Rs. 9,92,368. Maharaja Madhav Rao took special care that his education plans should not outgrow the funds available in future years, by laying down an education fund which nowadays yields an important proportion of the money needed year by year. Education in Gwalior is thus to a certain extent independent of the changes which may occur in the taxation budget. At present the education fund yields more than Rs. 7 lakhs a year while in 1938 the total education expenditure was Rs. 13,76,638. Since then the State education budget has been increased to over Rs. 16 lakhs.

In 1938 there were 2,80,000 boys and 2,48,000 girls of school-going age in the State. The number of pupils in the schools represented 25.1 per cent of the boys and 4.854 per cent of the girls. The boys had two colleges, 78 secondary schools, 1,261 primary schools and 21 special schools; the girls one college, 15 secondary schools, 155 primary schools, and one special school. In 1938 there were 70,294 boys at school as against 60,520 in 1937 and 12,058 girls as against 12,340. There were also 158 self-supporting schools with 3,678 boys in them and seven with 284 girls in them.¹

7. EDUCATION IN JAIPUR. Jaipur is the biggest of the Rajputana States (in population) and educationally the most advanced among them.

Public education of the modern type began in the State in 1844 when Maharaja Sawai Ram Singhji II was a minor. In that year, a school was established at Jaipur to teach English, Persian, and Sanskrit. This subsequently developed into the Maharaja's College. A Nobles' School was established in 1862 and a Sanskrit College in 1865. When Maharaja Sawai Ram Singhji died in 1880, the total number of pupils under instruction had increased to 20,277 and an Arts School and a Public Library had been established.

Maharaja Sawai Madho Singhji II succeeded to the *Gadi* in 1880 and ruled till 1922. He was succeeded by Maharaja Sawai Man Singhji who was only 10 years of age at the time of his father's death. The State was, therefore, again under a minority rule from 1922 to 1931 when the Maharaja

¹ Michael H. Brown: *Gwalior Today*, p. 39.

was invested with administrative powers. In 1931-32, the total expenditure on education was Rs. 6.14 lakhs and the State maintained 1 English College, 2 Sanskrit Colleges, 30 secondary schools for boys, 1 secondary school for girls, 149 primary schools (of which 11 were for girls), 7 Adult schools, 1 technical school and 2 training schools. Besides, there were 524 private institutions (including 175 indigenous schools).

An interesting experiment in Jaipur is the educational centre at Pilani established by the Birlas. The institution started as a family school which was later on made a public one. It became a Middle School in 1916, a High School in 1925 and a College in 1928. Owing to the keen interest taken in it by Seth G. D. Birla, it has progressed very rapidly and is now one of the best equipped educational centres in India.

In 1947-48, the State had 4 colleges, viz., the Maharaja's College, Law College, Sawai Man Singh Medical College, and Maharani's College for women (all of which were situated in Jaipur). Besides these, there were 7 private colleges—the S. S. G. Pareek Vidyalaya, Jaipur (which was an intermediate college); the Birla College (Arts, Science and Commerce and the Birla Engineering College, Pilani; Seth G. B. Podar College, Nawalgarh; K. N. Rajput Intermediate College, Jobner; Seth G. P. Chamarla Intermediate College, Fatehpur; and Sri Kalyan Intermediate College, Sikar. It had 41 High schools (22 conducted by the State), 57 Anglo-Hindi Middle schools (22 conducted by the State), and 107 Hindi Middle Schools (77 conducted by the State). The total number of pupils in secondary schools was 44,650. Besides the State conducted 713 primary schools with 35,830 pupils and aided 285 with 7,125 pupils.

Among the other educational activities of the State, mention may be made of the maintenance of Sanskrit and Ayurvedic Colleges, a library department, and the conduct of 59 Adult classes with an enrolment of 767 men and 258 women.

The total expenditure on education was Rs. 28.63 lakhs in a total budget of Rs. 300 lakhs (1947-48).

8. EDUCATION IN BARODA. Baroda was a little late to come into the field of modern education. Even as late as in 1870, it did nothing for the education of the people and did not maintain even a single educational institution.

Two hundred or so private elementary schools, *pandyajini nishalo*, taught reading, writing, and arithmetic in a vague manner to eight thousand students; while in some of the towns schools, which had copied those existing in neighbouring British territory, took their pupils a little, a very little, further up the steps of learning. In the Cantonment at Baroda the British authorities had established a small Anglo-vernacular school in a building which had been erected, half at the expense of the Government and a half at that of Sheth Jamsodji Jijibhai of Bombay; and at Navsari, since 1856, there had existed a school for Parsi children called, after its founder, the Sir Cowasji Jehangir Madressa.¹

¹ *The Gazetteer of the Baroda State*, p. 808.

The first schools of the modern type were established in Baroda in 1871. In that year, one High School and four primary schools—2 Marathi and 2 Gujarati—were started in Baroda city. They had a staff of 17 persons and enrolled 822 children at a total cost of Rs. 1,800 a year. During the next decade, there was fairly good progress. In 1873, four *Vedshalas* were established. The year 1875 was even more important because a *Vernacular Education Department* was now formed under a special officer who was designated *Vidyadhikari*. Two girls' schools and an Urdu school were established in the same year. By 1881, the number of primary schools had increased to 180 with an enrolment of 7,465 pupils.

In 1881, Maharaja Sayajirao Gaikwar began to rule his State. It was under this far-sighted and great ruler that Baroda showed a splendid progress in all branches of administration, and particularly in education. When he came to the Gadi in 1881, Baroda was an extremely backward State; but he ruled it so well that, at the time of his death in 1938, it was universally held to be one of the most progressive ones in India. The following statistics for 1937-38 will show the rapid progress of the State under Maharaja Sayajirao :—

Serial No.	Kinds of institutions.	1937-38.	
		Schools.	Pupils.
1	College	1	1,054
2	Secondary Teachers' Training College ..	1	88
3	Government high schools.	16	6,989
4	A. V. Middle schools and classes ..	31	3,234
5	Aided institutions and classes .. .	23	6,651
6	Unaided institutions and classes ..	56	4,724
7	Primary schools	2,030	2,46,322
8	Fund schools	3	337
9	Aided primary schools (including special schools)	78	5,037
10	Unaided primary schools .. .	70	3,159
11	Technical schools .. .	5	1,738
12	All other institutions .. .	28 *	1,402
	Total ..	2,542	2,80,735

The system of good government, with its emphasis on educational progress, which was started by Maharaja Sayajirao was maintained even after him. Between 1937-38 and 1947-48, therefore, the State showed steady progress in education. In the latter year, the total number of educational institutions was 2,664 with an enrolment of 3,40,985 (2,15,888 boys and 1,25,097 girls) which works out at 14.6 and 9.0 per cent of the total male and female population respectively. These institutions included :—

(a) Six colleges with an enrolment of 2,630 boys and 265 girls (four of these were colleges of Arts and Science, one of Commerce and one of Teacher-Training) ;

(b) 235 institutions imparting secondary education with an enrolment of 41,199 boys and 4,562 girls ;

(c) 2,306 primary schools (including 30 Kindergarten with 2,337 pupils) with an enrolment of 1,68,468 boys and 1,18,513 girls ; and

(d) 45 special institutions including 6 institutions of special education with an enrolment of 811 and 39 other institutions with an enrolment of 1,940 (of whom 548 were girls).

The total expenditure on education was Rs. 69.35 lakhs as against Rs. 40.37 lakhs in 1937-38.

Baroda has two distinctive contributions to make : it was the first state in India to introduce compulsory primary education and it has evolved a system of public libraries which has no parallel in other parts of India. Both these contributions deserve a careful study.

COMPULSORY PRIMARY EDUCATION

(a) *Preparations for compulsion (1881-1893)* : Maharaja Sayajirao was a convinced believer in mass education and in compulsory education for all. As soon as he came to the *Gadi*, therefore, he took up this problem for special consideration. But, at that time, education was so backward in the State that the immediate introduction of compulsion was out of consideration. For the first 20 years, therefore, he concentrated on expansion of primary education on a voluntary basis, as a preliminary step towards the introduction of compulsion. In 1891, the number of primary schools in the State rose to 558 as against 180 in 1881. He also gave special encouragement to girls' education and to the education of Harijans, because these two were the principal handicaps in a programme of compulsory education. By the end of 1891, therefore, the Maharaja thought that a stage had been reached when compulsory education could be introduced with fair chances of success.

(b) *Compulsion as an experimental measure (1893-1906)* : The further history of this great experiment is thus told by the *Baroda Gazetteer* :—

Long before the rest of India had done more than think of the free and compulsory education of the people as something desirable but hardly attainable, His Highness the Maharaja Gaekwad of Baroda had introduced it into his dominions ; and he has since witnessed its successful developments in the face of extraordinary difficulties. His Highness, in a speech delivered said :

" I have no hesitation in saying that we cannot do better than educate all our subjects. This is absolutely necessary for the realisation of my ambitions and wishes for the future of my people ".

So, after long deliberation, in March 1892, it was ordered that compulsory education should be experimentally introduced in the town of Amreli, and in nine villages of the taluka. All boys between the ages of 7 and 12, and all girls of from 7 to 10, living within a mile of a school, were to be compelled to attend that school; unless they were privately taught, or had already passed out of the standards declared to be compulsory, or for certain other reasons. The compulsory standards were then the first three. The order came into force in November, 1893. Gradually more schools were provided, until in 1904, 52 villages in the taluka had come under the operation of the new law. These places which then had schools had a population of 52,823; and the Education Department reported that ten per cent of these, actually 5,201, were attending the schools in the compulsory standards. Another 939 children were studying in higher standards so that there was a total of 6,140 children in the government schools, of whom 3,934 were boys. Fifteen years' experience in the Amreli taluka having proved that compulsory primary education was both desirable and possible, an Act making it compulsory throughout the State was introduced and passed in 1906. Under the Act the ages within which attendance at school was compulsory were, for boys from 7 to 12, for girls from 7 to 10. Children were exempted who were required to stay at home owing to the advanced age or infirmity of their parents; who were themselves physically or mentally unable to take advantage of the schools; who resided more than a mile from a school; who were the only breadwinners in the family; or who had either passed out of the compulsory standards, or had reached the maximum age under the Act. The machinery of compulsion was with the Revenue Department. Lists of children affected by the Act were drawn up in each village by the patel and the schoolmaster each year; appeals against the inclusion of particular names went to the Vahivatdar of the taluka; and penalties under the Act were inflicted by the latter officer.¹

(c) *Compulsion is Vigorously Pursued in all Parts of the State (1906-15)*: The next ten years saw a phenomenal progress in compulsory education as the following statistics will show :—

	1906-07.	1916-17.
No. of schools in the State (all stages) ..	1,241	3,199
No. of pupils in above	99,768	2,42,086

The introduction of compulsion, therefore, was fully justified.

Two events of this period also deserve some notice. The first of these refers to the transfer of control to local bodies and the second to some improvements in the machinery to enforce compulsion. The *Baroda Gazetteer* describes them in the following words :—

(i) *Transfer of Primary Education to Local Bodies*:—In 1905, with the extension of Local Self-Government in the State, control over the *gramyashalas* (i.e., rural

¹ pp. 810-2.

primary schools) was handed over to the Local Boards. The experiment proved to be a failure. The Boards knew nothing of education, and cared less; except, it must be confessed, in so far as the appointment and dismissal of school-staffs offered a profitable field for the exercise of nepotism or patronage. A later Education Commission, in 1910, found that the Boards were unfit, at that stage of their development, to exercise control over the village schools. It was withdrawn, and handed over to the education department; though it is still hoped that, in the near future, a rapid development of civic conscience within the Boards will permit Government safely to hand over control over primary education to local agencies. The Boards are quite willing to exercise control; they are entirely unwilling to contemplate any proposal which, by adding to local financial resources will enable them to do something to support the schools.¹

(ii) *Enforcement of Compulsion*:—In 1914, a change was made (in the procedure for the enforcement of compulsion). Exaction of penalties was withdrawn from the Vahivatdar and was entrusted to the Village Boards and to the Municipalities. The intention was to make the successful operation of the Act a matter for the local authorities, rather than for the Revenue Department, and the innovation has, on the whole, worked well. In order to induce the patels and talatis to take an active interest in the matter, five per centum of the fines recovered are payable to them as rewards for zeal in the discovery and punishment of offenders. This is perhaps the most questionable feature in the Act as it stands; and in practice, it has been found that the rewards offered do not, as a matter of fact, serve as an inducement to these revenue subordinates. The balance of the fines recovered are expended on the erection of school buildings, and on giving clothes and other assistance to particularly poor children. The State revenues do not benefit at all from fines under the Act. It may also be mentioned that absence from school is only punishable when it amounts to two-thirds of the total number of working days in a month, the fine papers being prepared every month. The original practice was to permit 15 days absence in each month, and to prepare the fine papers monthly. The change was introduced in favour of the agricultural population; for their children can now legally absent themselves from school during the seasons of greatest pressure in the fields provided that the total absence does not exceed 45 days in any one quarter. In 1913 the period during which attendance at school was compulsory was changed to include the fourteenth year for boys, and the twelfth for girls, and the compulsory standard was raised to the fifth for both; for it had been found that, under the old system, children did not learn sufficient during their stay at school to stand them in good stead in after life. In 1916 a further change was made. In that year a Committee investigated the working of the Compulsory Act. It found that the figures of school attendance had not presented a true picture of actual achievement; and that several children, returned as in attendance at school year after year, never went beyond the first standard and in a few cases not even beyond the "below" standard. The minimum age was raised to seven complete, and the "below" standard was abolished; at the same time an improved method of statistics was introduced, designed to prevent the inclusion as actual attenders at school of children who were either consistently absent, or who were so often absent as to make no progress at all. The result has been to make it appear that a smaller number of children are in actual attendance at schools but the actual fact is that the figures are now correct.²

¹ p. 310.

² pp. 812-3.

(d) *A set-back to progress (1916-17 to 1937-38)* : Unfortunately, the progress of primary education in the State was slowed down after 1916-16 because a new policy was adopted regarding *single-teacher schools*. In the earlier period, the Maharaja was very anxious to provide a school to every village, however small, and attempted to do so by adopting, with modifications, the system of indigenous schools. As the *Baroda Gazetteer* observes :—

In 1891, ten years after His Highness Maharaja Sayajirao III had assumed his full powers, there were 558 primary schools in the State, the majority being situated in the towns and larger villages. The small villages were as yet unprovided with Government schools ; though they had, many of them, indigenous schools of doubtful capacity maintained by private individuals for their own small profit. At this time His Highness was busily engaged in giving fresh life to the village organisation and government which had in ancient days been so marked a feature of Indian life. The village panchayats were reorganised ; and, as a part of their duties, it was decided that they should make themselves responsible for the village schools. In ancient India the guru was one of the village servants, and responsible to the village authority for the quality of his services, so, in Baroda in 1891, it was ordered that the schoolmaster should become one of the village servants and that schools be provided in all villages which could produce sixteen children willing to attend. Accordingly 632 new village schools were established, about twenty in each taluka. The schoolmaster was paid from 3 to 5 rupees a month from the Revenue Department—as that department looked after the village services ; and he was permitted to receive fees, either in money or in kind, from the grateful parents of his pupils. Towards the cost of maintenance of this school a grant, varying in amount with the examination results, was made by the Department of Education. At this stage, His Highness ordered the appointment of an Education Commission to investigate, both the progress already made, and the nature of the problems awaiting solution. On its advice His Highness gave instructions that the indigenous private schools in the villages should be brought under the control of the Education Department ; a step which was facilitated by the enlistment of the private schoolmasters in the ranks of the servants of that department. At that time the village schoolmaster was paid six rupees a month by the State, and was permitted to get as much as he could from the villagers in addition ; a grant of twenty rupees in the maximum was also payable to each schoolmaster as a reward for efficiency. Most of these village schools, *gramyashalas*, were in charge of but one teacher ; but in 1892 it was ordered that an assistant should be given to all schools which had an attendance of fifty or more children.¹

This policy of free encouragement to single-teacher schools was changed in 1916-17. It was now laid down that, as a rule, the minimum number of teachers in a primary school should be two and that a State primary school would be established only in places where about 75 children were available for instruction. This drive against single-teacher schools was evidently inspired by the tirade against their inefficiency which was so commonly heard in the Education Departments of British India at this time. It had hardly any justification and did incalculable harm to the cause of mass education in Baroda. School after school was either closed or amalgamated with a neighbouring school and in 1936-37, twenty years

¹ pp. 309-10.

after adoption of this policy, the total number of schools in the State was only 2,552 as against 3,199 in 1916-17 and the total enrolment was just about the same as it was in 1915. Most of the small villages with a population of less than 500 were deprived of school facilities. As the *Report on Public Instruction in Baroda State, 1938-39*, pointed out:—

In judging the results of the compulsory education system it must not be overlooked that as many as 1,325 villages out of a total of 2,969 in the State accounting for nearly a fifth of the total population have no schools as their population is too small. The following figures will make this statement clear :—

	Number of villages	Population
Villages provided with schools	1,433	1,868,559
Villages within one mile of those having schools	211	72,553
Total	1,644	1,941,112
Villages without school facility	1,325	495,347 ¹

In a country like India where people live in small villages, single-teacher schools are inevitable, and an attempt to eliminate them is sure to do more harm than good. Mr. Littlehailes, the Retired Educational Commissioner with the Government of India, was invited to the State in 1933 to examine the working of the State Educational Policy and to suggest improvements. One would expect that, with his British Indian experience and training, Mr. Littlehailes would have supported the drive of the State against the single-teacher schools. But he did not; on the other hand, he strongly advocated a change in the state policy and wrote :—

Single-teacher schools under trained teachers may be quite satisfactory; they are not objectionable. I should go further and allow temporary single-teacher schools under untrained teachers, and knowing that a school once closed down is difficult to resuscitate, I would rather not close a school because its single teacher was untrained. Many schools which were formerly provided with only a single teacher have been closed and others have been provided with an additional teacher. This policy, I submit is not to the good of the country, especially in its present state of educational advancement. In places where the school has been closed, facilities for education no longer exist and children remain illiterate. In places where the additional teacher has been added, though the individual instruction given to pupils may have been slightly improved, the strength of the school is not appreciably increased; it has certainly not doubled; furthermore the cost of the school has increased twofold though the instruction given has not improved to anything like the same extent.

There will always be small villages, where the employment of a single teacher is all that can be economically justified and wastage in school effort will always be with us especially when illiteracy is large, so that single-teacher schools will have to remain in parts of Baroda just as they remain in small and out of way villages in other parts of the world. What is desirable is that where a single-teacher school exists, the teacher should be conscientious in character and trained. It has not been found impossible in other countries for a single teacher to conduct several small classes in a small village; it should not be impossible in Baroda. I advise the opening of single-teacher schools in places where they have been closed and transfer to them of trained teachers.²

¹ pp. 60-1.

² J. P. Nalk: *Compulsory Primary Education in Baroda State* (The Progress of Education Feb. 1941, pp. 361-2).

These remarks produced no effect and the State drive against single-teacher schools continued to the end of the period under review. This wrong policy had several unhappy results. It slowed down the pace of compulsion; it denied education to all small villages and to about 20 per cent of the total population of the State; and worst of all, it affected adversely the education of backward communities like *Rani Paraj* who live in forest areas in small villages. They needed education most and it was they who were denied it under this policy. To those who still argue that single-teacher schools ought to be eliminated, this experiment in Baroda is a great lesson. As we look at the problem, single-teacher schools must be accepted in India as a necessary evil and attempts should be concentrated, not on their *elimination*, but on their *improvement*.

BARODA LIBRARIES.

The second distinctive contribution of the Baroda State is the unique system of public libraries it has been able to evolve. The following extract from a publication issued by the State will give a clear idea of the system as it functions :—

(a) *History*: The development of free public libraries is by far not the least among the notable achievements of H. H. the late Maharaja Sayajirao's long and meritorious reign. As far back as 1910 he foresaw the important part which libraries would be called upon to play in any movement for the uplift of the masses. The scheme of village libraries then evolved under his personal supervision and fostering care has stood foursquare all these years and is now increasingly coming under the notice of people concerned with the increase of literacy and of enlightened citizenship. The object of the scheme has been to make the people aware of a higher standard of living, of a more abundant life and making them so aware, to inspire them to achieve it on the basis of self-help.

The original scheme was that there should be four types of mofussil libraries. The district town libraries should be situated at the chief town of each of the four districts of the State (receiving a maximum annual grant of Rs. 700); the town libraries should be situated at the taluka headquarters or in places having more than 4,000 population (receiving a maximum annual grant of Rs. 300); the village libraries should be situated in villages (receiving a maximum annual grant of Rs. 100) and fourthly, integrating and supplementing the services of these libraries should be the travelling libraries operated from Baroda. The grant from the department in each case was conditional upon the people raising an equal amount from amongst themselves. The department of libraries was authorized to promise on behalf of the district local boards an equal contribution. The scheme envisaged a hierarchy of institutions, the village libraries being supervised by town libraries which in their turn would be looked after by the district town libraries and these by the department of libraries.

(b) *Present organization*: Except that they do not stand in this pyramidal order the present development of village libraries is in conformity with the original scheme. There are at present four types of libraries: 4 district town libraries, 42 town libraries, 1,351 village libraries and 390 travelling library boxes. To them have been added three other types, the reading-rooms—71 in number, the children's room—13 in number and the ladies libraries—21 in number. These have come into existence by the exigencies of social and economic circumstances. In districts of not very well-to-do peasants it was found impossible to collect as many as Rs. 75 which is the minimum capital with which the

smallest library comes into being. On the other hand they found it convenient to begin with a reading-room costing no more than Rs. 25. The reading-room has only newspapers and magazines and no books. The reading-rooms have always proved in experience to develop into libraries. Year by year reading-rooms are being transformed into full-fledged libraries. The starting of children's rooms received a tremendous impetus when the library movement came to be regarded as an essential complement of compulsory primary education. To prevent relapse into illiteracy it was necessary to keep alive the reading habits of youths after the few years of compulsory schooling. And the free public libraries were eminently suitable for this purpose. They promoted free and read-what-you-like type of informal reading and thus provided a continuation of the school. In the library were kept lists of students who had recently left schools. They were studied by the librarians in silence to see that the listed boys and girls made use of library facilities. The method was persuasive and more effective. The ladies' libraries were found necessary in the first instance to overcome the Indian women's traditional shyness to make joint use with men of public institutions and later, with the increasing participation of women in all spheres, to give wider scope to their new enthusiasm for works of public service.

(c) *A village library* : A village library starts with a basic collection of hundred rupees' worth of books. People's share in this is just Rs. 25, the other Rs. 75 are given as a gift from Government. To start a library, however, villagers have to collect Rs. 75 out of which Rs. 25 are set apart for books and Rs. 50 for buying furniture and contingency.

All the libraries and reading-rooms are free and the only condition of admission as a registered reader is that the person must belong to the place. Subscriptions are nevertheless accepted and they entitle the subscribers to some privileges, such as getting more books at a time for home-reading or getting magazines and newspapers from the library at home.

(d) *Management* : The libraries are independent bodies managed by a local library committee consisting of from 6 to 12 members. The president of the committee is a leader of village society, the secretary—generally the senior teacher—is the moving spirit of the committee and not infrequently he works as an honorary librarian. When he does not so work, the post of the librarian is taken up by a junior teacher. The teacher's work is unpaid though notice is taken of his library work in judging his efficiency as a teacher. As secretary he collects the people's share of the annual budget, keeps accounts and with the approval of the president corresponds with the department of libraries or other institutions. The president and the library committee bank on his enthusiasm and the teacher on his part puts in his best endeavour. In progressive villages he earns not only the good-will of the people but small allowance for his library work from the committee of management.

The children's rooms are managed by the library committee of the adults' library. The ladies' libraries are managed by an auxiliary committee consisting of women who work in close co-operation with the main committee.

(e) *Travelling libraries* : The travelling libraries are boxes of books sent from Baroda to supplement and refresh the stock of books of the stationary libraries. They are also used to do the duty of libraries where none exist. There is a stock of books in Baroda separate from that of the Central Library which is drawn upon to fill the travelling libraries' boxes. This stock is mostly of Gujarati books, the other languages represented being English, Hindi, and Marathi.

(f) *Library buildings* :—The independence of the libraries is both an index of local pride and a source of inspiration to the villagers. They feel that the library is their institution and that it must well stand comparison with its neighbours'. This pride is, if anything, stimulated if the library is given a building of its own. Generally the libraries are housed in school buildings, rarely in private-owned houses. Since 1930 the library department has been setting apart about ten thousand rupees annually for helping mofussil libraries in having their own buildings. The smallest library building approved is worth Rs. 1,800 and some of the more ambitious buildings are worth, from twenty to thirty thousand rupees. The local people, the department and the district local board share the expenses of the building in more or less equal proportion. The local people besides finding one-third expenses are required to lay by one thousand rupees from the interest of which the building can be maintained in proper repair. In the year 1940-41 there were 184 libraries with their own buildings. It has been found that the people's share is generally a handsome donation of a single individual who regards the library building as a suitable memorial to perpetuate the memory of his dear relative. The library department permits the name of the donor to be associated with the library. . . .

(g) *Library funds* :—To the library committee the question of raising funds is as important as that of management. Of their annual budget up to two-thirds is received as grant from the department of libraries and district local boards. But one-third has to be raised locally. This is done thus : on occasions of births and deaths, or marriages and similar joyous functions, families are persuaded by the library committees to make some donation to the library funds. The appeals are seldom turned down. The librarian or the secretary works upon the competitive spirit of local well-to-do men and wheedles them into making donations. The subscribers' fees form a good portion. And lastly comes the interest on the reserve fund.

The reserve fund is the financial fly-wheel of the libraries. It is a store-house of economic power. The Government grant cannot be supposed to be a permanent source of income. For one thing the number of libraries would increase from year to year without a corresponding increase in Government revenue. The library department, therefore, rightly envisaged a future when Government grants to libraries would cease or at any rate diminish into thin proportions. Since 1916 the libraries have therefore been made to contribute some portion of their annual budget to the reserve fund. These reserve funds have now amounted to four and five figure rupees and are providing a steady annual income. The funds are public property, the department only controlling their investment and disposition.

(h) *Routine of management* :—When the library committee have collected their share of the annual income, they frame a budget and send it to the department for approval. The town libraries send only their budget while the village libraries send the amount that they have collected. The town libraries are informed by the department, of the amounts which they are to receive as Government and local board contribution and they start to spend accordingly. The library year begins in August and the town libraries receive payment of the Government and local board contribution in two instalments, first in January, and the second in July. For receiving these payments the town library committees send to Baroda all the bills and the department verify that the expenses are incurred in accordance with the sanctioned budget.

To village libraries no money is sent. Their contribution is received by the department, the share of Government and local board contribution is determined

and generally three times the amount of village collection is sent to the Libraries' Co-operative Society to be spent by it as shown in the budget of each village library. The village librarian is relieved of the duty of book keeping and accountancy. The centralized purchase through the Libraries' Co-operative Society is both economic and efficient.

(i) *Libraries' Co-operative Society* :—In the year 1924, some of the library enthusiasts among the people started a Libraries' Co-operative Society. Its functions are multiform. Like the consumers' co-operative society, it supplies to its constituent library members, library materials like books, stereoscope, forms, furniture, etc., without the middleman's profits. It works also as a savings bank and accepts the reserve funds of the various libraries as deposits. It administers trusts made for the benefit of libraries. It publishes books on library science. It also publishes a Gujarathi monthly called "Pustakalaya". Besides various useful articles and news about library affairs of the State in particular it publishes the departmental circulars which are issued from time to time for the guidance of the village library authorities.

(j) *The State Library Association* :—The vitalizing influence which the "Pustakalaya" exercises on libraries is strengthened and made more vivid by the activities of the State Library Association. The holding of Library conferences and training classes for librarians are two of its important activities. It has only two paid servants, but the honorary work of the members is beyond praise. Personal visits of the members to villages have proved very effective in creating and fostering library consciousness among people.

A feature of the State Library Association is its pyramidal structure. The State Library Association stands at the apex. At the bottom are the village libraries and their friends, i.e., the people who take interest in their welfare. In between these two come the Juth mandals—group associations, the taluka and the district organizations. The independence of village libraries in the official scheme is thus tempered and almost transmuted by this unofficial organization into a kind of vital contact.

(k) *Central Library* :—In the City of Baroda itself there is the Central Library which is run by the State for free use by the citizens. It is a general library intended to provide healthy reading material. It is modelled on the urban municipal libraries of England and the U.S.A. At the same time it partakes of the nature of national libraries in regard to its Gujarati and Marathi collections which are presumably the largest in these languages.¹

In 1941, it was estimated that (a) 83.2 per cent of the population was served by Reading Rooms and Libraries, (b) the number of readers was 11 lakhs (in a total population of 28 lakhs), (c) the total stock of books was 19 lakhs, and (d) books in circulation were 10 lakhs. The following statistics of expenditure for 1907-08 and 1941-42 will also be found interesting :—

	1907-08	1941-42
	Rs.	Rs.
Government contribution to Central Library	..	42,868
Government grant to Village libraries ..	10,991	41,455
People's contributions	2,525	49,474
Grant from Local Boards	1,511	42,492
Total ..	15,027	1,76,289

¹ T. D. Waknis: *Baroda Libraries*, pp. 1-13.

9. EDUCATION IN JODHPUR: The history of modern education in Jodhpur State in the nineteenth century is thus told by the *Rajputana Gazetteer* :—

In former days, the Darbar took no interest in education, and the chiefs and nobles, as a rule, considered reading and writing as beneath their dignity and as arts which they paid their servants to perform for them; schools were, of course, to be found but were private institutions of the indigenous type, such as Hindu *posals* or *pathshalas* and Musalman *maktabs*, in which reading, writing and a little simple arithmetic were taught. The earliest public institutions were apparently a couple of vernacular schools (at Jasol and Barmer) in the Mallani district; it is not known when they were first opened, but they were attended by about one hundred boys in 1868 and were maintained from a special fund under the control of the Political Agent. In the following year, the Darbar established an anglo-vernacular school (which soon developed into a high school) and a Hindi pathshala—both at the capital—while in 1870 vernacular schools were opened at the headquarters of nine districts. An anglo-vernacular school was started at Pali in 1873; a branch of the high school at the capital in 1875—when also two schools for the sons of Thakurs (the first of their kind in Rajputana) came into existence—and Sanchor got a vernacular school in 1880. In this way, the State institutions (including two in Mallani) numbered eighteen in 1881-82, namely one high school, two anglo-vernacular (primary), thirteen vernacular, and two special schools, and the cost of maintenance was about Rs. 10,000.

So matters remained until 1886-87, when the important towns of Jalor, Merta, Nagaur, Phalodi and Sojat were provided with anglo-vernacular schools, and vernacular institutions were established at eight other places, including three in Mallani (namely at Chhotan, Gurba and Sindari). The same year witnessed the opening at the capital of a girls' school (called after Mr. Hewson, who was guardian to the Maharaja and had died in August 1886) and a Sanskrit school, as well as the amalgamation of the two special schools (above mentioned) into one institution styled the Powlett Nobles' school after the officer who was then Resident. The only other addition made during this decade was the starting in 1891 of a class at the high school for teaching the boys telegraphy and qualifying them for employment on the Jodhpur-Bikaner Railway. Thus the number of State institutions (including five in Mallani) had increased to thirty-two in 1891-92, namely one high school (with a special class for telegraphy), seven anglo-vernacular primary schools, twenty-one vernacular, one girls' school, and two special institutions (one for Sanskrit and the other the Nobles' school). Omitting the Mallani schools—for which figures are not available—the number of pupils on the rolls at the end of the above year was 1,665, and the daily average attendance was 1,057 including forty-four girls, while the expenditure amounted to about Rs. 21,000.

In 1893, a college, named after the late Maharaja "the Jaswant College," was established and, having been affiliated to the Allahabad University up to the Intermediate standard in the same year and up to the B.A. standard in 1898, it sent its first batch of candidates for the Intermediate examination in 1896 and for graduation in 1899. A surveying class, similar to the overseer class at the Roorkee College, was started in 1896 for the purpose of training youths for service in the Public Works Department, but it was never very popular and was abolished in 1904. The vernacular school at Sindari in Mallani was closed about this time as the jagirdars withdrew their subscriptions, but, on the other hand, an institution, founded in the interests of the poorer Rajputs and called after the Earl of Elgin, then Viceroy of India, was established at Mandor (near the capital) in 1896 and amalgamated with the Powlett Nobles' school three years

later. Lastly, anglo-vernacular schools were opened at Kharchi (Marwar junction) and Balotra in 1896 and 1898 respectively, and the teaching of English was started at the Nawa school in 1897. Consequently the State institutions (including four in Mallani) numbered thirty-four in 1901-02 namely the college (with a surveying class), the high school (with a class for instruction in telegraphy), ten anglo-vernacular primary and nineteen vernacular schools, one girls' school, and two special schools. Omitting, as before, the Mallani schools, from which no returns were received, the number of boys and girls on the rolls at the end of the above year was 1,718, and the daily average attendance was 1,321, of whom fifty were girls; the total expenditure was Rs. 37,000.¹

Even in the Twentieth Century progress continued to be slow. The latest report available is that for 1945-46 which shows that the total number of educational institutions in the State was 309 only (1 college; 15 high schools; 2 upper middle schools; 43 middle schools (Vernacular); 71 primary schools; 163 lower primary schools; 11 oriental schools; and 3 teacher-training institutions). The total number of pupils was 39,568 only (34,330 boys and 5,328 girls). The total expenditure on education was only Rs. 15.47 lakhs as against a total expenditure of Rs. 233 lakhs (5.3 per cent).

¹ pp. 166-7.